

The Partisan-Ideological Sorting of New Americans*

Marco M. Aviña[†] and Marcel Roman[‡]

Department of Government, Harvard University

September 28, 2026

Abstract

Despite extensive research on partisan-ideological sorting, whether and how this process unfolds among immigrants remains unclear—a pressing gap as their share of the electorate continues to increase. Naturalization may not be associated with sorting due to constraints on political engagement even among immigrant citizens and inherent difficulties in making partisan-ideological connections. Alternatively, naturalized immigrants may still overcome these constraints and become more familiar with U.S. ideological and partisan considerations relative to non-citizens. Nevertheless, a naturalization-sorting link may not be uniform due to relevant ethno-racial differences. We adjudicate between these perspectives with meta-analyses using 27 immigrant surveys ($N = 76,928$) across four ethno-racial groups. On average, we show that sorting is more than double for naturalized immigrants ($d = 0.38$) relative to non-citizens ($d = 0.17$). Additionally, the naturalization-sorting link is heterogeneous across ethno-racial groups. Naturalized immigrants assimilate on the dimension of sorting, but race and ethnicity shape this process.

*We thank Alexander Agadjanian, Jennifer Hochschild, Ángel Saavedra Cisneros, and audiences at the SPSA 2024 Borders and Migration Conference within a Conference, MPSA 2024, and the IHS Migration and Citizenship Graduate Workshop at Rice University for helpful comments as well as the James M. and Cathleen D. Stone Program in Wealth Distribution, Inequality, and Social Policy for support.

[†]Ph.D. Candidate; mmendozaavina@fas.harvard.edu; <https://marcomavina.com>

[‡]Assistant Professor; mroman@g.harvard.edu; <https://marcelroman.com>

Do the ideological dispositions of immigrants align with their partisan identities? Partisan-ideological sorting has increased in recent decades (Levendusky, 2009; Mason, 2018; Konicki, 2025), with significant consequences for U.S. political behavior. On one hand, sorting may reflect a more sophisticated mass public (Downs, 1957; Abramowitz and Saunders, 2008). On the other, strong overlapping partisan-ideological identities may engender mass polarization and encourage elites to adopt extreme positions (Levendusky, 2009; Mason, 2015; Levendusky and Malhotra, 2016; Iyengar et al., 2019; Abramowitz, 2022; Ciuk, 2023; Konicki, 2025).

Although sorting is important, most sorting research focuses on the general public or predominantly white samples. Some work examines if and how sorting manifests among Black and Latino voters (Gay, 2014; Jefferson, 2024; Enders and Thornton, 2022; Enders and Thornton, 2023), but little research has examined the existence and unique correlates of sorting among immigrants. Between 2000-2022, the number of naturalized citizens has doubled, and the share of foreigners comprising the electorate has grown from 6-10% (Figure A1). In 2025, the U.S. foreign-born population proportion was nearly 16%—higher than the previous peak of 15% in 1890 during the Age of Mass Migration.¹ By mid-century, 1-in-5 Americans will be immigrants.² Relative to U.S.-born Anglo whites, immigrants may be less familiar with the partisan-ideological structure of U.S. politics and less exposed to factors (e.g. elite mobilization) that engender sorting (Wong, 2000; Ramakrishnan, 2006; Levendusky, 2009; Hajnal and Lee, 2011). Conversely, as immigrants integrate and are increasingly exposed to U.S. politics, they may “politically assimilate” and partisan-ideologically sort like U.S.-born Anglo whites (Ramakrishnan, 2013). Therefore, an open, yet demographically relevant, question is whether the growth in the immigrant population and its introduction into the electorate will attenuate or sustain partisan-ideological sorting within the broader electorate, with downstream consequences for mass political preferences and polarization.

We adjudicate between competing theories on the relationship between naturalization, a key step in immigrant political incorporation (Wong, 2000; Ramakrishnan, 2006; Ramakr-

¹<https://www.pewresearch.org/short-reads/2025/08/21/key-findings-about-us-immigrants/>

²<https://wonder.cdc.gov/controller/pdf/PublicationNationalProjections2014-2060.pdf>

ishnan, 2013; Sears et al., 2016), and partisan-ideological sorting. Immigrants face several socio-political and economic constraints that limit engagement with host society politics such that even those who naturalize may exhibit limited sorting (DeSipio, 1996; Cho, 1999; Wong, 2000; Michelson, 2005; Ramakrishnan, 2006; Ramirez and Wong, 2006; Hajnal and Lee, 2011). Conversely, consistent with causal evidence showing naturalization increases socio-political incorporation, citizenship may still be associated with sorting despite the constraints immigrants face (Hainmueller et al., 2015; Hainmueller et al., 2017). However, although some work is bullish on the association between naturalization and immigrant integration (Wong, 2000; Sears et al., 2016), *citizenship may not be uniformly associated with sorting*. The racialized experiences of different immigrant ethno-racial groups—through differences in baseline socio-political resources, exposure to co-racial social contexts, and discrimination—may shape the naturalization-sorting association (Cain et al., 1991; Hajnal and Lee, 2011; Huddy et al., 2016; Jefferson, 2024; Raychaudhuri, 2020; Enders and Thornton, 2023).

We use 27 survey samples (1989-2025; $N = 75,411$) of Latino, Asian, Black, and white immigrants to adjudicate between these perspectives. On average, meta-analyses show partisan-ideological sorting is stronger for naturalized immigrants ($d = 0.38$) relative to non-citizens ($d = 0.17$). The pattern is heterogeneous by race/ethnicity. Naturalized Latino and Asian immigrants are sorted more akin to U.S.-born Anglo whites, the most sorted ethno-racial segment of the electorate (Jefferson, 2024; Enders and Thornton, 2023), than their non-citizen counterparts. The naturalization-sorting link is weaker among white immigrants because white non-citizens are already highly sorted. Naturalization is unassociated with sorting among Black immigrants, who are weakly sorted across citizenship status relative to Anglo whites. However, consistent with prior theories on the Black “partisan-ideology paradox” related to political knowledge (Gay, 2014; Jefferson, 2024), group consciousness (Dawson, 1995; Philpot, 2017), and racialized social constraint (White and Laird, 2020), the naturalization-sorting link among Black immigrants appears constrained by the parties

available for Black immigrants to support. Ancillary analyses show: the naturalization-sorting link is heterogeneously associated with partisanship by race/ethnicity; sorting and the naturalization-sorting link is changing over time across ethno-racial groups; the naturalization-sorting link holds in panel data; and the meta-analytic naturalization-sorting association is net of established alternative explanations that could also encourage sorting (e.g. political knowledge).

Given the political import of partisan-ideological sorting, the growth and naturalization of the immigrant population may have profound consequences on mass politics depending on whether immigrants sort like established U.S.-born Americans as they integrate into the electorate. Unlike prior work showing naturalization deepens political engagement and partisan acquisition (Cain et al., 1991; Wong, 2000; Hajnal and Lee, 2011; Hainmueller et al., 2015; Sears et al., 2016; Hainmueller et al., 2017), our theory and evidence makes a contribution by systematically assessing immigrant sorting and its relationship to naturalization. On average, we show naturalization is associated with political assimilation on the dimension of sorting, particularly among the two largest immigrant-origin groups (i.e. Latinos and Asians). But, in contrast with literature that is optimistic on the integrating nature of citizenship, we show the naturalization-sorting link is not uniform and that race should be an important consideration in assessing the pace of political assimilation associated with naturalization

On balance, although our findings may not have positive implications for mass polarization, immigrant citizens appear to be an informed segment of the citizenry that support or identify with parties reflecting their ideological disposition (Abramowitz and Saunders, 2008; Levendusky, 2009). Many naturalized immigrants ultimately possess an accurate cognitive representation of the two parties and their ideological commitments. Our evidence also implies that immigrants are not as ideologically cross-pressured as we might assume given their relative unfamiliarity with American politics (McCann and Chavez, 2016). As (non-Black) immigrants integrate via naturalization, we should expect their political behavior and attitudes to be more similar to U.S.-born Anglo whites in that ideology serves as

a strong constraint on partisan preferences and could generate bias, negative affect, and uncompromising dispositions toward out-partisans (Mason, 2015; Mason, 2018; Davis, 2019). Our evidence also implies that the puzzle of limited sorting among Latinos is partly driven by some Latinos being non-citizens (Enders and Thornton, 2023). Our findings may also explain prior evidence demonstrating naturalized Latinos possess stable partisanship and partisan loyalty (Sears et al., 2016), which may partly be downstream of ideological sorting.

Our evidence also demonstrates the conditional construct validity and reliability of ideology scales among understudied groups. Ideology is associated with partisanship in a manner akin to U.S.-born whites only for immigrant citizens, not non-citizens. Our results underscore the importance of evaluating how survey items operate among diverse groups to fully characterize mass politics (Jefferson, 2024; Enders and Thornton, 2022; Enders and Thornton, 2023).

Finally, we make a methodological contribution. Preexisting research on sorting among non-whites or immigrant groups typically focuses on one ethno-racial group (Gay, 2014; Sears et al., 2016; Jefferson, 2024) or uses a single data source to estimate sorting and its correlates (Enders and Thornton, 2022; Enders and Thornton, 2023; Preuhs and Hero, 2025). In contrast, our meta-analysis examines 27 independent immigrant surveys fielded over nearly 4 decades across four major U.S. ethno-racial categories. Unlike prior research, our approach allows us to evaluate ethno-racial heterogeneity in sorting and the naturalization-sorting link over time while mitigating the prospect that our findings are driven by bias inherent to a specific survey, sampling approach, or period. In short, our approach is the most comprehensive yet in diagnosing partisan-ideological sorting among immigrants, naturalized or otherwise.

Sorting as Political Assimilation

We conceive of partisan-ideological sorting as a form of immigrant *political assimilation*. Assimilation definitions vary, but consistent with canonical interpretations (Gordon, 1964; Teske and Nelson, 1974) and Ramakrishnan (2013), we define *political assimilation* as “convergence with the dominant ethno-racial group in an immigrant-receiving society among immigrants along a politically relevant attitudinal and/or behavioral dimension.” Our

definition presupposes that assimilation is *multi-dimensional* and *relative*: it can occur along cultural (Gordon, 1964), socio-economic (Portes and Zhou, 1993), or political factors (Branton, 2007). Likewise, there are different forms of “political assimilation” independent of sorting.³ In the U.S., the “dominant” ethno-racial group could be understood as U.S.-born Anglo whites,⁴ who possess material, socio-cultural, and political advantages relative to other ethno-racial groups (Lipsitz, 2006).⁵ Although our assimilation definition centers convergence with dominant groups, it does not preclude alternative understandings of assimilation that: examine how established host country groups change in response to new immigrant groups;⁶ how immigrants converge along relevant outcomes with “non-dominant” groups in the host society;⁷ or how immigrants may not assimilate on relevant outcomes in a “straight-line” toward the dominant group benchmark even with integrative characteristics (e.g. citizenship, host language acquisition, or generational status).⁸ The last point will be relevant when we describe how naturalization may not be associated with sorting for all ethno-racial groups.

We posit partisan-ideological sorting is a *theoretically and substantively relevant* dimension of *political assimilation*. Sorting is increasing and higher among Anglo whites relative to non-whites and immigrants (Levendusky, 2009; Enders and Thornton, 2023; Konicki, 2025). This is partly because of Anglo white dominance in and relative familiarity with U.S. politics (Jefferson, 2024; Enders and Thornton, 2022). Sorting fundamentally requires an acute understanding of U.S. politics and the ideological structure of U.S. parties, which could elude immigrants due to their relative lack of initial familiarity with the host society (Wong, 2000; Ramakrishnan, 2006; Hajnal and Lee, 2011). Moreover, sorting is important. Prior evidence shows sorting is responsible for reduced political cross-pressure, strong partisan

³e.g. convergence on turnout (Ramakrishnan, 2006), anti-Black beliefs, issue positions (Roman, 2023).

⁴“White” is also a slippery category, see Kasinitz and Waters (2024)

⁵Anglo white “dominance” could be challenged on some aspects, such as: culture, where Black people play an important role, see Shorbagy (2023); or socio-economic status, where some Asian-American groups eclipse whites on certain dimensions, see Lee and Sheng (2024)

⁶a “two-way street” model of assimilation (Teske and Nelson, 1974; Alba, 2020).

⁷e.g. the adoption of a racial group consciousness characteristic of U.S.-born Black people whose ancestors were enslaved in the South among second-generation Black immigrants (Smith, 2014).

⁸e.g. segmented assimilation theory (Portes and Zhou, 1993; Telles and Ortiz, 2009)

loyalties, affective polarization, and the “activism, bias, and anger” resulting from overlapping partisan-ideological identities (Mason, 2015; Levendusky and Malhotra, 2016; Iyengar et al., 2019; Abramowitz, 2022; Ciuk, 2023; Konicki, 2025). Although sorting is framed as elite-driven, elites may endogenously respond to sorting by prioritizing co-partisan mobilization and adopting extreme positions (Levendusky, 2009). Given sorting is: strongly and relatively exhibited by Anglo whites; possibly elusive for immigrants who are, on average, less familiar with U.S. politics and; is consequential to U.S. mass politics, we believe it is important to diagnose sorting among immigrants and if sorting levels converge with U.S.-born Anglo whites as they naturalize and putatively possess more opportunities to engage with U.S. politics.

To be clear, sorting is not the only dimension of political assimilation. Future research should diagnose immigrant political assimilation on other dimensions and their correlates. But, given sorting’s import in U.S. politics, an independent theoretical and empirical inquiry in how much immigrants sort and the correlates of immigrant sorting may be valuable.

Naturalization and Sorting

Prior research frames naturalization as a critical step in the political incorporation of immigrants within immigrant-receiving societies (Ramakrishnan, 2006; Ramakrishnan, 2013). Across several immigrant groups and immigrant-receiving countries, naturalization is associated with social integration (Hainmueller et al., 2017), political participation (Uhlener et al., 1989; Levin, 2013), political interest (Hainmueller et al., 2015), partisan identity adoption (Cain et al., 1991; Wong, 2000), host country belonging (Simonsen, 2017), and political assimilation on policy preferences (Branton, 2007; Just and Anderson, 2015; Roman, 2023).

However, missing from prior accounts is a theoretical treatment on the relationship between naturalization and sorting. Understanding this relationship is theoretically important because it can test limitations in how much naturalization is associated with different dimensions of political assimilation or integration. Although naturalization can make voting, partisan identification, and political interest easier, naturalization may not be as strongly associated with sorting since it is a higher-level cognitive dimension of political assimilation that is

about making strong(er) connections between one’s ideology, party platforms, and partisan preferences (Levendusky, 2009). Sorting is not simply measuring “I support a party,” which is perhaps an easier consideration for newly naturalized immigrants, but rather, “I support a party *because of* ideological considerations” (or vice-versa). Moreover, even naturalized immigrants are less exposed to elite communication and mobilization (DeSipio, 1996; Cho, 1999; Ramakrishnan, 2006; Ramirez and Wong, 2006; Hajnal and Lee, 2011), which is apparently critical to engendering mass sorting (Levendusky, 2009). Thus, we adjudicate between competing theoretical perspectives on the possibility of a naturalization-sorting link.

One perspective posits naturalization may be linked with sorting. Citizenship enables immigrants to vote (Wong, 2000) and is associated with stronger political interest (Uhlauer et al., 1989; Pantoja and Segura, 2003; Levin, 2013; Hainmueller et al., 2015). This may encourage immigrants to contemplate the consistency between their partisan or ideological dispositions, partly because these dispositions become more behaviorally consequential. Citizenship may also generate a stronger sense of belonging to the polity due to legalized host country acceptance (Just and Anderson, 2015), stronger deportation protections (Hainmueller et al., 2026), and longer time-horizons within the host society (Hainmueller et al., 2017). Stronger belonging could translate to an investment in understanding the partisan-ideological structure of U.S. politics (Simonsen, 2017). Citizens may be more likely to be politically mobilized than non-citizens and reached by party officials since they can vote (Cho, 1999; Ramakrishnan, 2006; Hajnal and Lee, 2011).⁹ Prior research posits political mobilization helps transmit partisan-ideological constraint from elites to the masses (Levendusky, 2009).

The U.S. citizenship acquisition process could also encourage sorting. All immigrants under-50 must learn English and nearly all immigrants must acquire U.S. civics education to pass the citizenship exam.¹⁰ Prior evidence shows English-language skills and civic education help facilitate immigrant political engagement and interest (Cho, 1999; Manning

⁹2016-2020 Collaborative Multiracial Post-Election Survey data show contact by parties or community organizations is 8-29 percentage points higher for naturalized immigrants relative to non-citizens ($p < 0.05$).

¹⁰Source: <https://www.uscis.gov/policy-manual/volume-12-part-e-chapter-2>

and Edwards, 2014). Engagement and interest could help immigrant citizens better understand the correspondence between U.S. ideological and partisan cues. English skills could do the same through the consumption of polarized English media (Wilson et al., 2020).

Implicit in our theoretical account of the naturalization-sorting link is the important role of political knowledge concerning the partisan-ideological structure of U.S. politics. Jefferson (2024)’s work on Black American sorting is instructive (see also Gay (2014)). Naturalization may not just encourage liberal immigrants to support Democrats or Republican immigrants to adopt conservative positions because that is how the host society conceives of “what goes with what.” Mechanically, by virtue of encouraging integration into U.S. politics, naturalization may also help immigrants truly understand the meaning of relatively unfamiliar and abstract, but politically salient, labels in surveys like “liberal” or “conservative.” Therefore, the construct validity and reliability of traditional ideology scales may become stronger with respect to partisan preferences via naturalization, consistent with causal evidence from Switzerland showing naturalization engenders political knowledge (Hainmueller et al., 2015).

Immigrants also self-select into applying for citizenship, and the host government selects which applicants to accept (Hainmueller et al., 2017). Therefore, selection independent of the consequences of naturalization may also inform the naturalization-sorting link. Prior research suggests or shows that immigrant citizens, relative to non-citizens, are positively selected on acculturation, bureaucratic competence, length-of-stay, socio-economic status, non-voting political engagement, and political interest (Pantoja and Segura, 2003; DeSipio, 2011; Hainmueller et al., 2026). These characteristics may encourage partisan-ideological constraint. Given there is evidence on how naturalization *causes* (non-sorting) political assimilation (Hainmueller et al., 2015), but other evidence that the link between citizenship and higher socio-economic status is driven by selection (Hainmueller et al., 2026), a naturalization-sorting link may be due to both the downstream consequences of naturalization *and* selection.

Competing perspectives suggest naturalization may be unassociated with sorting. Regardless of citizenship, prior research shows immigrants possess less socio-economic resources

than natives, select into less politically engaged networks, and are less mobilized by elites (Wong, 2000; Michelson, 2005; Ramakrishnan, 2006; Ramirez and Wong, 2006; Hajnal and Lee, 2011), all requisite factors for U.S. political engagement and perhaps, by extension, a better understanding of the U.S. partisan-ideological structure. Many immigrants start the political socialization process later than the U.S.-born. Those who migrated as adults did not acquire political predispositions via childhood socialization from family as native citizens do (Campbell, 1980; Green et al., 2004; Jennings et al., 2009), which could limit opportunities for and the strength of sorting. Habits may also be sticky: immigrants who are less engaged or constrained from political engagement pre-naturalization may continue to be less engaged post-naturalization even if opportunities for engagement are stronger (Gerber et al., 2003; Hainmueller et al., 2017). The relative lack of political engagement via sticky habits could undercut the internalization of “what goes with what” in U.S. politics.

Prior evidence corroborates this competing perspective: naturalized immigrants (relative to the native-born) are still less likely to engage in organizational activities (DeSipio, 1996), vote (Cho, 1999), and be contacted by political organizations (Ramirez and Wong, 2006). Moreover, field experimental evidence on NYC immigrants demonstrates that, within a few years post-naturalization, naturalization does not beget socio-economic resources (Hainmueller et al., 2026)—a critical prerequisite for political engagement (Brady et al., 1995). These pieces of evidence are consistent with Ramakrishnan (2006)’s conjecture that “naturalization is not enough” to reduce political engagement gaps between immigrants and the native-born.

Likewise, naturalization may be unassociated with sorting since many non-citizens may already be sorted because they possess legal status that already motivates investment in U.S. politics (e.g. a green card, visa, DACA, etc.) (Hainmueller et al., 2017). Or, non-citizens may already be motivated to understand the U.S. partisan-ideological structure due to the sustained salience of immigrant-related issues from Proposition 187 (Bowler et al., 2006) to the rise of Trump (Roman, 2023). Many immigrants may also experience discrimination or xenophobia, which could constrain naturalized moderates or conservatives from supporting

the Republican party given its anti-immigrant agenda (Bowler et al., 2006; Huddy et al., 2016). Relatedly, consistent with the “integration paradox,” since citizenship may increase host society integration, this may make immigrants more knowledgeable about and sensitive to Republican-driven anti-immigrant discrimination (Maxwell, 2013), undercutting Republican identification among conservative immigrants. Nevertheless, citizenship may also mitigate threats of discrimination or deportation (Hainmueller et al., 2017; Hainmueller et al., 2026), which could make Republican support among immigrant moderates or conservatives easier.

Race, Ethnicity, and the Naturalization-Sorting Link

The literature has long acknowledged that race and ethnicity shape the pace of immigrant assimilation (Gordon, 1964; Portes and Zhou, 1993; Freeman, 2002; Telles and Ortiz, 2009; Haller et al., 2011; Alba, 2020; Kasinitz and Waters, 2024). Even scholars who are optimistic about immigrant assimilation acknowledge that ethno-racial group differences in host country reception, baseline socio-economic resources, and co-ethnic networks can attenuate the degree of assimilation as a function of integrative characteristics (e.g. length-of-stay, generational status) (Alba et al., 2011; Alba, 2020; Kasinitz and Waters, 2024). Evidence shows that race and ethnicity structure assimilation: second-generation Black immigrants are less likely to socio-economically advance from the first-generation relative to other immigrant groups due to anti-Black discrimination (Haller et al., 2011); generational status is associated with *less* education among Mexican-Americans due to persistent segregation, ethnic discrimination, and lower baseline socio-economic resources (Telles and Ortiz, 2009); Eastern and Southern European immigrants had an easier time naturalizing in response to assimilative pressure than Mexican and Chinese immigrants, but a harder time marrying U.S.-born whites than Western and Northern European immigrants (Fouka et al., 2022); Latinos, who are differentially exposed to immigration enforcement, are less likely to assimilate via adopting restrictive immigration preferences due to a threatening immigration enforcement context (Roman, 2023); Asian immigrants are outpacing other groups on attaining socio-economic status, but still experience racism that attenuates host society belonging (Lee and Sheng, 2024).

Although the literature acknowledges that race and ethnicity shape the pace of immigrant assimilation, there is limited theorization and evidence on how race/ethnicity may shape the relationship between naturalization and political assimilation, let alone sorting. Prior research on the link between naturalization and political assimilation: typically focuses on only one immigrant ethno-racial group (DeSipio, 1996; Pantoja and Segura, 2003; Levin, 2013; Sears et al., 2016); finds uniform associations between naturalization and political outcomes across race/ethnicity (Uhlener et al., 1989; Wong, 2000) or; does not explicitly theorize on differences in the relationship between naturalization and relevant outcomes between groups (Cain et al., 1991). An exception is Ramakrishnan (2006), who explicitly theorizes that Black and Asian immigrants are less likely to be mobilized post-naturalization than Latino immigrants because of their smaller group size (but they ultimately find the naturalization-participation link is uniform across race/ethnicity). Accordingly, we make a theoretical contribution to the literature by explicitly outlining how race and ethnicity may shape the association between naturalization and partisan-ideological sorting.

Non-white immigrants may be much less sorted than white immigrants to begin with. Black and Latino immigrants in particular are less socio-economically resourced than white immigrants (Ramakrishnan, 2006; Hajnal and Lee, 2011),¹¹ meaning they have fewer resources to engage in U.S. politics and understand connections between ideological and partisan cues (Brady et al., 1995). Due to segregation, Asian, Black, and Latino immigrants may be less integrated into white social networks—the very social contexts where they could be exposed to cognitive linkages between ideological and partisan commitments from highly sorted voters (i.e. native-born whites) (Raychaudhuri, 2020; Jefferson, 2024). This dynamic may be particularly pronounced for Black immigrants, who may be more geographically isolated from whites than other immigrant groups (Freeman, 2002), and who may live among other Black people who tend to be less knowledgeable about ideological labels (Jefferson, 2024). Moreover, European immigrants tend to have better English skills than Latin American and

¹¹See also: <https://www.migrationpolicy.org/journal/spotlight/sub-saharan-african-immigrants-united-states>

East Asian (but not South Asian or African) immigrants (Carliner, 2000), which may help facilitate engagement with U.S. political content that could strengthen partisan-ideological cues (Wilson et al., 2020). The lower average socio-economic status of Black and Latino immigrants, in addition to linguistic barriers that many non-white immigrants face, may also endogenously reduce elite mobilization and concomitant cues that link ideological preferences with the parties—after all, these immigrant groups are lower-propensity participants in American politics (Ramakrishnan, 2006; Hajnal and Lee, 2011). Finally, conservative non-white immigrants who are not protected by citizenship may not support the Republican party due to its racist and xenophobic rhetoric (Huddy et al., 2016; Philpot, 2017; Enders and Thornton, 2023). This dynamic may be acute for Black immigrants subject to co-racial social pressure to reject the Republican party (White and Laird, 2020). These propositions are consistent with prior evidence showing non-whites, on average, are less sorted than whites, irrespective of immigration status (Enders and Thornton, 2023).¹²

Therefore, the association between naturalization and sorting may be larger for non-white relative to white immigrants since sorting has *more room to vary* in response to factors that facilitate immigrant integration. Likewise, the naturalization-sorting association may be stronger for non-white immigrants since the naturalization process may require acquiring attributes that could encourage sorting and tend to be less available to non-white immigrants (e.g. socio-economic status, English-language skills, civics education) (DeSipio, 2011). This proposition is consistent with Hainmueller et al. (2017), who find the returns to naturalization vis-a-vis social integration are stronger for differentially marginalized Swiss immigrants.

However, it is also plausible that Black immigrant citizens in particular may not be more sorted than Black non-citizens. As previously discussed, segregation means Black immigrants tend to live in predominantly Black neighborhoods with other Black Americans and are more isolated from whites than other non-white groups (Freeman, 2002). This has two potential consequences. First, given that Black people know less about the meaning of ideological

¹²Indeed, as we demonstrate later in Figure 3, white non-citizens are 190%, 75%, and 176% more sorted than Latino, Asian, and Black non-citizens.

labels (Jefferson, 2024) and the partisan-ideological structure of U.S. politics (Gay, 2014), naturalized Black immigrants may not have access to strong cues from their social context to make connections between their ideological and partisan dispositions. Second, predominantly Black socio-geographic contexts may motivate newly naturalized Black immigrants to support the Democratic party irrespective of ideology due to particularly strong pro-Democratic co-racial social pressure (White and Laird, 2020). Moreover, naturalized Black immigrants may adopt a politicized racial consciousness as they assimilate (Smith, 2014), that is, an understanding that Black people are politically marginalized in the U.S. and should support parties that mitigate, at least to some extent, that marginalization (i.e. the Democratic party) regardless of ideological commitments (Dawson, 1995; Philpot, 2017). Therefore, the naturalization-sorting link may be weaker, or null, among Black immigrants. Alternatively, the naturalization-sorting link may be bounded in that naturalized Black liberals (or moderates) may be more inclined to support the Democratic party, while naturalized Black immigrant conservatives may not shift toward supporting the Republican party.

Data

We collect 27 immigrant surveys fielded across 35 years ($N = 75,411$ U.S. immigrants) to assess if naturalization is associated with sorting in a replicable, generalizable manner. Survey inclusion requires measures of ideology, partisanship, and citizenship status. Surveys are subsetting by ethno-racial group, since many surveys sample to the population characteristics of the main Census-categorized ethno-racial groups (Latinos, Asians, Black people, whites).¹³ We use representative weights for all surveys.

The surveys we analyze are: the 1989 Latino National Politics Survey (LNPS, $N = 1,383$); the 1999 Kaiser Family Foundation Latino poll (KFF, $N = 1,478$); the 2000 Pilot National Asian-American Study immigrant subsample (PNAAS, $N = 913$); the 2004 National Politics Study (NPS) Latino, Asian, and Black immigrant subsamples ($N = 410, 379, 231$); the

¹³Latino respondents are those who identify as ethnically Hispanic/Latino or as having Hispanic/Latino ancestry. Asians, Black people, and whites are non-Latino/Hispanic.

2006 Latino National Survey (LNS, $N = 5,446$); the 2008 National Asian-American Survey (NAAS, $N = 4,568$);¹⁴ the 2010 and 2017 Pew Latino Surveys ($N = 831, N = 450$);¹⁵ the 2015 Robert Wood Johnson Foundation Latino poll immigrant subsample (RWJF, $N = 611$); the 2012 and 2016 Latino Immigrant National Election Survey (LINES, $N = 853; N = 1,532$); the 2016, 2020, and 2024 Collaborative Multiracial Post-Election Surveys (CMPS),¹⁶ which include samples of Latino ($N = 721, N = 1,185, N = 1,426$) Asian ($N = 1,371, N = 1,791, N = 2,250$), and Black ($N = 274, N = 517$) immigrants; and the 2021 and 2025 Barreto-Segura Partners (BSP) surveys of Latino immigrants ($N = 1,000, N = 1,200$). These surveys are bilingual. We also use the English-only Cooperative Elections Study (CES, 2006–2025)¹⁷ to construct additional Latino ($N = 16,097$), Asian ($N = 8,454$), Black ($N = 6,303$) and white ($N = 15,254$) immigrant samples. See Section B.1 for more methodological details.¹⁸

Across surveys, partisanship is measured using the seven-fold classification (strong Republican to strong Democrat).¹⁹ Ideology is measured with the five-fold self-placement scale (very conservative to very liberal).²⁰ Citizenship is an indicator equal to 1 if a respondent reports they are naturalized, 0 if they are not a citizen.

Estimation

We estimate the following linear model for each survey:

$$\text{Partisanship}_i = \alpha + \beta_1(\text{Ideology}_i \times \text{Citizen}_i) + \beta_2\text{Ideology}_i + \beta_3\text{Citizen}_i + \sum_{k=1}^K \beta_{3+k}X_i^k + \varepsilon_i$$

Citizen_i is the naturalization indicator, Ideology_i is the ideology scale, Partisanship_i is the partisanship scale, ε_i are robust (HC2) errors, and $\sum_{k=1}^K \beta_{3+k}X_i^k$ are K covariates which could affect selection into naturalization and sorting. Across surveys, these covariates include some

¹⁴The 2016 NAAS does not measure ideology.

¹⁵These are the only Pew Latino surveys with ideology, citizenship, and partisanship items simultaneously.

¹⁶The 2008 and 2012 CMPS studies do not ask about citizenship status.

¹⁷See: <https://cces.gov.harvard.edu/>

¹⁸We do not include other surveys (the GSS; the ANES; Nationscape; National Latino and Asian American Survey; Pew Asian American surveys; National Black Election Panel; National Black Politics Study) because they either do not measure citizenship, have too few non-citizens, or do not measure ideology or partisanship.

¹⁹Four surveys use three- or five-fold scales; See Table B1 for partisanship measurement across surveys.

²⁰Seven surveys use three- or seven-fold scales; See Table B1 for ideology measurement across surveys.

combination of age (Wong, 2000), gender (Ramakrishnan, 2006), Non-English language-of-interview (Cho, 1999), income, education, employment, homeownership (Brady et al., 1995), political interest and/or knowledge, a non-electoral participation index (e.g. campaign work, protesting, discussion) (Hajnal and Lee, 2011), religion (Hajnal and Lee, 2011), proportion of life spent in the U.S. (Wong, 2000), national origin (Hajnal and Lee, 2011), marital status (Alba, 2020), parenthood, perceived discrimination (Huddy et al., 2016), and identity centrality (Hajnal and Lee, 2011). See Table B2 for cross-survey covariate inclusion details.

Our quantity of interest is β_1 , the difference-in-slopes for the ideology-partisanship association between naturalized citizens and non-citizens ($\frac{\partial^2 \text{Partisanship}}{\partial \text{Ideology} \partial \text{Citizen}}$).²¹ Each slope is akin to a covariate-adjusted association between partisanship and ideology. We Student-normalize partisanship and ideology in our main analysis ($\frac{x-\mu}{\sigma}$), so β_1 is a *standardized* difference-in-slopes. If naturalization is associated with sorting, β_1 should be *positive*.

Given we estimate the model above for each survey, we report 27 independent estimates of the ideology-partisanship association for non-citizens and naturalized immigrants. We pool these estimates using a random-effects (RE) meta-analysis to obtain the average cross-survey association for each citizenship subgroup. Formally, let $\hat{\theta}_k$ denote the estimate from survey k . The RE model is: $\hat{\theta}_k = \mu + \epsilon_k + \zeta_k$, where μ is the mean of the distribution of true effects, ϵ_k is within-survey sampling error, and ζ_k captures between-survey heterogeneity. An RE specification is warranted. The surveys differ in design, sampling, field dates, and measurement, making a consistent coefficient implausible. Indeed, Cochran’s Q tests indicate significant cross-survey coefficient heterogeneity. Thus, a fixed-effects model—which attributes all cross-survey variation to sampling error—targets an estimand that is difficult to defend, whereas the RE model allows true coefficients to vary and summarizes their distributional mean. RE also yields more conservative standard errors, reducing false positives (Borenstein et al., 2021). To evaluate if sorting is statistically stronger among naturalized immigrants relative to non-citizens, we conduct a coefficient difference test of the meta-analytic ideology-

²¹This quantity can also be interpreted as a difference-in-differences.

partisanship associations between naturalized immigrants and non-citizens.²²

To assess ethno-racial heterogeneity, we re-estimate the meta-analysis for surveys sampling each ethno-racial immigrant subgroup separately. We estimate the difference-in-coefficients characterizing the ideology-partisanship relationship for non-citizen and naturalized immigrants within each ethno-racial subgroup. We use coefficient difference tests to determine significant differences in the difference-in-coefficients across ethno-racial groups.

Results

Table C3 reports the 27 β_1 estimates. Consistent with our theoretical insights, ideology is significantly ($p < 0.05$) more associated with partisanship among naturalized citizens relative to non-citizens in 22/27 (81%) surveys. Several factors may explain the null estimates. First, many surveys have small sample sizes, limiting statistical power to detect sorting differences across citizenship status. Second, measurement error in the ideology scale among immigrants less familiar with U.S. ideological labels can attenuate ideology-partisanship associations. Third, the 27 surveys vary by field period and immigrant composition, and sorting is heterogeneous by time and race/ethnicity (we return to these points later). In short, the null estimates reflect expected meta-analytic sampling and measurement variability.

Figure 1 reports the standardized ideology-partisanship associations for naturalized and non-citizen immigrants across the 27 surveys, with random-effects meta-analytic averages. Several points are noteworthy. First, the ideology-partisanship association is often indistinguishable from zero for, particularly Latino and Black, non-citizens. Second, consistent with Table C3, naturalized immigrants consistently display higher sorting than non-citizens. Third, sorting varies by survey and ethno-racial group. Fourth, accounting for these sources of heterogeneity, the random-effects meta-analytic estimates indicate the average ideology-partisanship association for naturalized immigrants is 0.38 standardized units in the partisanship outcome,

²²We use the following equation for statistically assessing meta-analytic subgroup differences (Borenstein et al., 2021): $\frac{b_1 - b_2}{\sqrt{SE_1^2 + SE_2^2}}$, where b_1 and b_2 are the meta-analytic ideology-partisanship associations for naturalized immigrants and non-citizens and SE_1 and SE_2 are the respective standard errors. The equation produces a t -statistic, which we convert to a p -value.

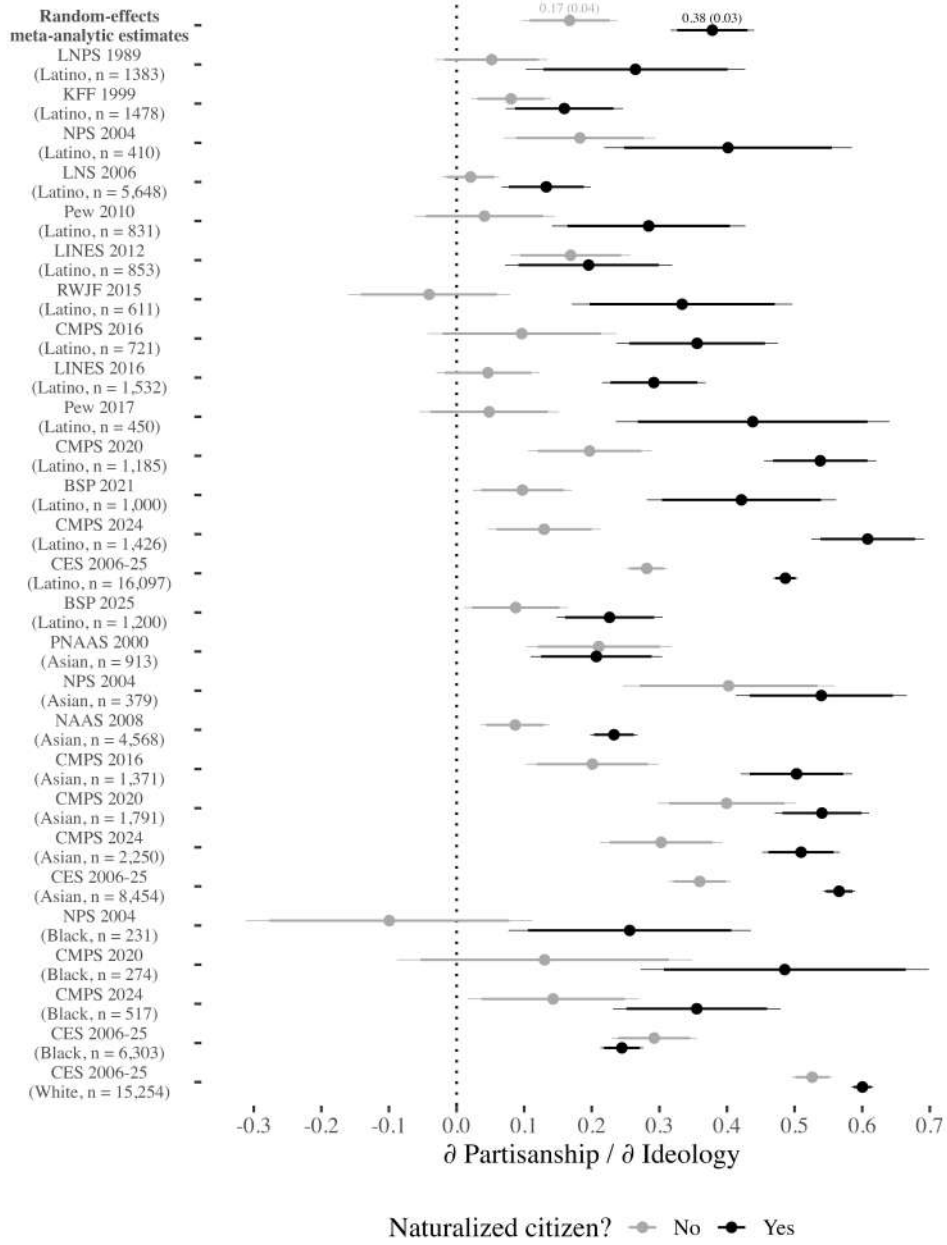


Figure 1: Naturalized immigrants are over twice as partisan-ideologically sorted as non-citizens. X-axis = standardized ideology coefficients (outcome = partisanship) by citizenship status (denoted by color) simulated from the covariate-adjusted linear model specified in the Estimation section, y-axis is the survey at use and corresponding ethno-racial group. Annotation denotes random-effects meta-analytic ideology-partisanship associations for immigrant citizens and non-citizens. 95% CIs from HC2 SEs displayed.

versus 0.17 for non-citizens. Put simply, *naturalized immigrants are more than twice as partisan-ideologically sorted as non-citizen immigrants*. Coefficient difference tests show this

difference is statistically significant ($p < 0.001$). The difference in coefficients is equivalent to 0.21 standardized units, which is more conservative than prior estimates on the effect of naturalization on non-sorting political assimilation (1 SD, see Hainmueller et al. (2015)). The smaller coefficients we estimate are consistent with our theorization that sorting may be less associated with naturalization than other dimensions of political assimilation.²³

Ethno-Racial Heterogeneity

We show that the naturalization-sorting association is ethno-racially heterogeneous. Figure 2 plots the meta-analytic difference in ideology-partisanship associations between non-citizens and naturalized immigrants separately by ethno-racial group. Latino, Asian, Black and white naturalized immigrants are more sorted than their non-citizen counterparts by 0.23, 0.17, 0.19, and 0.08 standard deviations respectively ($p < 0.001$, $p < 0.001$, $p = 0.10$, $p < 0.001$). Consistent with our theory, coefficient difference tests show the naturalization-sorting link is stronger for Latino and Asian immigrants than for white immigrants ($p < 0.001$; $p < 0.01$).

The large but noisy naturalization-sorting association among Black immigrants warrants further inspection. A null naturalization-sorting link is theoretically plausible among Black immigrants given the limited access they may have, regardless of naturalization, to political knowledge on ideological labels (Gay, 2014; Jefferson, 2024). However, the Black immigrant naturalization-sorting association is sizable, similar to the Latino and Asian immigrant associations. Smaller sample size notwithstanding, ancillary analyses assessing sorting by ideological subgroup (conservative, moderate, liberal) instead of the continuous five-fold

²³Aside from the design-based approach, the Swiss context Hainmueller et al. (2015) study is distinct from our U.S. immigrant study for four reasons: Hainmueller et al. (2015) analyze the effect of long-term naturalization (citizen for at least 13 years) whereas we bundle short and long-term naturalization. Thus, the association between naturalization and sorting we estimate may be weaker since short-term citizens may have less time to sort; The migrant population proportion is larger in Switzerland (27% versus 16% in the U.S.), which could either make the association between naturalization and political assimilation stronger or weaker due to stronger co-ethnic networks (Ramakrishnan, 2006); Switzerland has a less liberal naturalization regime and no *Jus Soli* relative to the U.S., so the relationship between naturalization and political assimilation may be stronger in the U.S. due to a favorable host context or may be weaker in the U.S. since baseline integration in Switzerland is worse and there is more room to integrate; Hainmueller et al. (2015) derive local treatment effects conditional on naturalization via municipal referendum, which may be particularly integrating relative to the modal naturalization process in the U.S. due to legally codified community support.

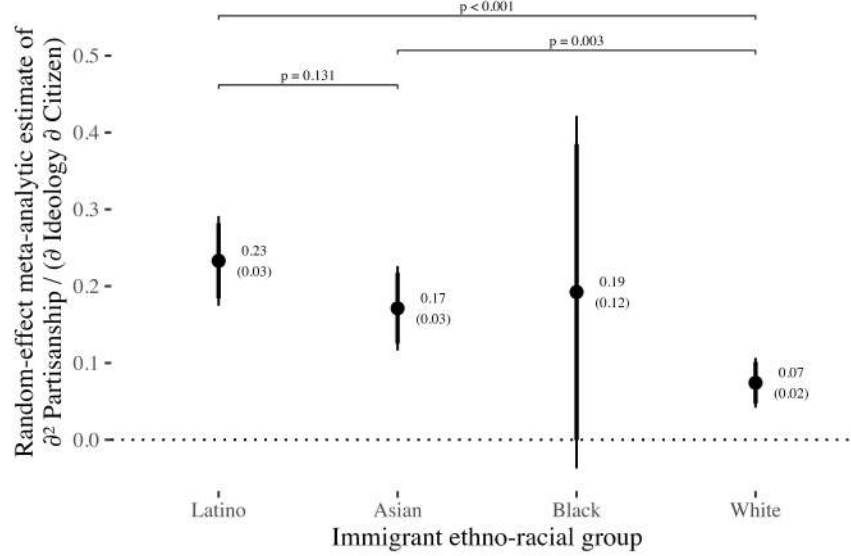


Figure 2: Meta-analytic naturalization-sorting associations (y-axis) across race/ethnicity (x-axis). 95% CIs from HC2 SEs displayed.

ideology scale, show the large (but insignificant) Black immigrant naturalization-sorting coefficient is driven by liberal naturalized Black immigrants (significantly) sorting into the Democratic party (Figure F8, Panel D). Conversely, moderate and conservative naturalized Black immigrants do not sort into the Republican party. Therefore, the naturalization-sorting link among Black immigrants is *bounded*. The link does not hold among Black conservatives, only liberals, consistent with extant theories of group consciousness and racialized social constraint on the Black partisan-ideology paradox (Philpot, 2017; White and Laird, 2020).

Are Naturalized Immigrants Politically Assimilated?

Is the naturalization-sorting link substantial? To find out, we used the 2016-2024 CMPS and the 2006-2025 CES, which also included white samples. We evaluate if naturalized, relative to non-citizen, immigrants politically assimilate to U.S.-born white sorting levels. If sorting among naturalized immigrants is comparable to U.S.-born whites, who are highly sorted, the naturalization-sorting link may be substantively important to diagnose even if existing theory is bullish on the integrating consequences of naturalization. *How strong* the naturalization-sorting link is of evidentiary importance net of the existence of a link.

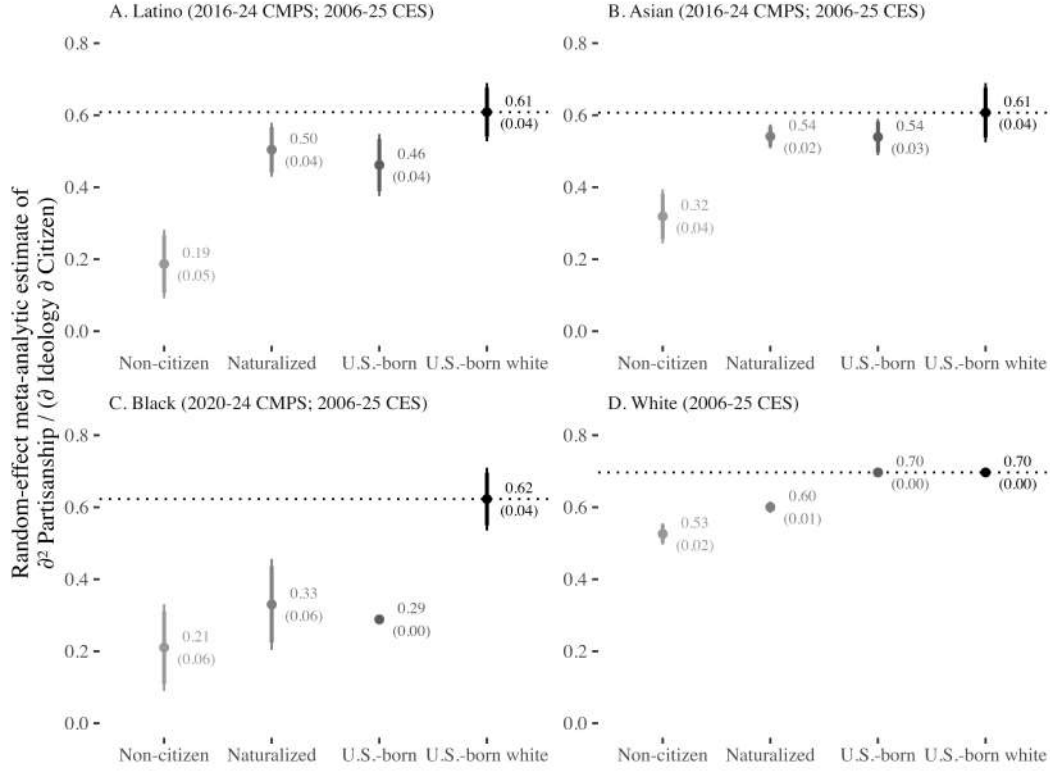


Figure 3: Sorting among naturalized immigrants compared to U.S.-born whites. Horizontal lines = U.S.-born white sorting levels. Standardized meta-analytic ideology-partisanship associations (y-axis) presented by subgroup (x-axis). 95% CIs from HC2 SEs.

Figure 3 reports the meta-analytic, covariate-adjusted ideology-partisanship association for non-citizen immigrants, naturalized immigrants, U.S.-born co-ethnics, and U.S.-born whites within Latino, Asian, Black, and white subgroups.²⁴ Among Latinos (Panel A), the meta-analytic standardized ideology-partisanship association for non-citizens, naturalized citizens, and U.S.-born whites is 0.19, 0.50 and 0.61 respectively. Thus, Latino naturalized immigrants substantially close the sorting gap: non-citizen Latinos are 31% as sorted as U.S.-born whites compared to 82% for naturalized Latinos. For Asians (Panel B), the meta-analytic standardized ideology-partisanship association for non-citizens and naturalized citizens is 0.32 and 0.54. Non-citizen and naturalized Asians are 52% and 89% as sorted as U.S.-born whites. Like Latinos, naturalized Asians close the sorting gap with whites.

Black immigrants (Panel C) are different. The meta-analytic standardized ideology-

²⁴White immigrant data are only available from the CES and are not meta-analytic.

partisanship association for non-citizens, citizens, and U.S-born whites is 0.21, 0.33, and 0.62. Consistent with our theory, these results may reflect less knowledge on ideological labels (Gay, 2014; Jefferson, 2024), a rejection of the Republican party among Black immigrants due to its perceptibly anti-Black orientation, or co-racial social pressure (which we also empirically substantiate, see Figure F8, Panel D again) (Philpot, 2017; White and Laird, 2020).²⁵ Thus, Black immigrants are the least sorted immigrants overall, only 34-53% as sorted as U.S.-born whites. White immigrants (Panel D) are also distinct: the naturalization-sorting link is weaker relative to Asian and Latino immigrants. The ideology-partisanship association for non-citizen whites (0.53) is similar to naturalized whites (0.60). This may be because white non-citizens are relatively sorted to begin with (76% the U.S.-born white level).

In sum, Latino and Asian naturalized immigrants close the sorting gap with U.S.-born whites relative to Latino and Asian non-citizens. Notably, Black immigrants have exceptionally weak sorting levels—similar to their U.S.-born co-racials—relative to U.S.-born whites. This gap could mean elites can make inroads with ideological appeals toward the Black immigrant electorate, but Black immigrants may be constrained by co-racial social pressure, group consciousness, and limited political knowledge such that such inroads are not possible. Naturalized whites are not much more sorted than white non-citizens, who display high baseline sorting. This is consistent with the view that white immigrants, irrespective of citizenship, have more resources to better understand how U.S. parties and ideology overlap.

Panel Evidence

To probe directionality and mitigate cross-sectional compositional bias, we also test our theoretical insights with four immigrant panel surveys: the 2012 and 2016 LINES ($N = 420$; $N = 702$), a pooled 2006, 2008, 2010, 2016 General Social Survey (GSS) immigrant panel ($N = 518$), and a pooled 2010, 2020 CES immigrant panel ($N = 1136$, but only 181 non-citizens). All panels are constructed to have two time periods (T1, T2). These panels are limited. They have small sample sizes compared to our meta-analysis. Therefore, panel tests

²⁵The naturalization-sorting association among Black immigrants on Figure 3 is weaker than the association on Figure 2 because the benchmark comparison on Figure 3 does not include the NPS 2004.

of the naturalization-sorting link are less statistically powered, which could produce variable estimates inconsistent with well-powered cross-sectional estimates that are not due to design differences (Arel-Bundock et al., 2026). The LINES also only surveys Latinos, and the small GSS and CES samples do not permit reasonable tests of ethno-racial heterogeneity. Moreover, the LINES 2012 panel only measures the traditional partisanship scale in T1. Thus, we use a partisanship proxy measured in T1 and T2 (Obama feeling thermometer subtracted from Romney thermometer) to assess if ideology is associated with partisan preferences over time.

For brevity, we summarize the panel evidence here, but readers should reference Section E for more details. We find some evidence of bidirectional sorting (ideology $\rightarrow$ partisanship; partisanship $\rightarrow$ ideology) over time among naturalized immigrants relative to non-citizens across the panels using a cross-lagged analysis. In the 2012 LINES panel, T1 ideology is not associated with partisanship over time regardless of citizenship, but T1 partisanship is significantly associated with ideology over time for naturalized immigrants only. In the 2016 LINES panel, T1 ideology is significantly associated with partisanship over time only for naturalized immigrants, not non-citizens. Likewise, T1 partisanship is significantly associated with ideology over time for naturalized immigrants, not non-citizens. In the GSS, T1 ideology is not associated with partisanship over time for either non-citizens or naturalized immigrants, but T1 partisanship is associated with ideology over time only among naturalized immigrants. The CES is an exception. T1 ideology is associated with partisanship over time *only for non-citizens*, not naturalized immigrants. T1 partisanship is associated with ideology over time for both non-citizens and naturalized immigrants. In Section E, we speculate on why the CES results differ from the GSS and LINES, noting the small CES non-citizen sample size, sampling mode differences, and monolingual survey design that may produce unrepresentative immigrant samples, especially on the dimension of sorting. In 3/4 panel surveys, we identify significant evidence of sorting in at least one direction among naturalized immigrants, but not non-citizens. Thus, the balance of evidence supports theoretical perspectives suggesting the existence of a naturalization-sorting link.

Accounting For Alternative Explanations

We perform several analyses to rule out alternative explanations for the naturalization-sorting link. First, citizenship may be associated with ideology, which could induce post-treatment bias. Citizenship is not associated with ideology across 21/27 surveys (78%, Figure D2). Meta-analytically, the standardized citizenship-ideology association is only a negligible -0.05 (Sawilowsky, 2009). This reduces concerns that the naturalization-sorting link reflects ideological differences between citizens and non-citizens and is consistent with a causal model where citizenship is associated with sorting rather than ideology itself.

Second, the sorting gap by citizenship may merely proxy for voter registration—a key participatory step (Rosenstone and Hansen, 1993). To assess this, we use the 18/27 surveys with registration measures and add an interaction between ideology and registration to our models, allowing the ideology-partisanship slope to differ for non-citizens, unregistered citizens, and registered citizens (Figure D3). Meta-analytic estimates reveal a significant ordering: non-citizens ($d=0.19$), unregistered citizens ($d=0.30$), and registered citizens ($d=0.47$).²⁶ Registration is important, but naturalization is still independently associated with sorting.

Third, we meta-analytically evaluate if the naturalization-sorting link persists net of adjusting for nine factors that may be associated with sorting based on our theory (Figure D5): political interest, political knowledge, education, income, language dominance, time-in-the-U.S., non-electoral participation, perceived in-group ethno-racial discrimination, and political mobilization by campaigns or parties.²⁷ Across all nine factors, naturalization is still significantly associated with sorting at some level of the factor.²⁸ Moreover, political

²⁶The difference in meta-analytic ideology-partisanship slopes between 1) non-citizens and unregistered citizens and 2) unregistered citizens and registered citizens is significant at $p < 0.10$ and $p < 0.01$ respectively.

²⁷We re-estimate our base model by including a triple interaction between naturalization, ideology, and the alternative factor to conduct this analysis.

²⁸Naturalization is not associated with sorting for the politically uninterested or unknowledgeable on Figure D5. However, naturalization is still significantly associated with sorting for the politically interested and knowledgeable, and the relationship between these covariates is stronger for naturalized immigrants, suggesting naturalization helps translate political interest and knowledge into partisan-ideological sorting. The evidence aligns with a perspective informed by Jefferson (2024) that political knowledge/interest is a prerequisite for the naturalization-sorting link to manifest, but, consistent with our theory, political interest or knowledge may not translate into sorting without the ability to behaviorally engage in U.S. politics.

interest, political knowledge, education, income, language-dominance, time-in-the-U.S., and political mobilization are more associated with sorting for the naturalized than non-citizens. The exception is perceived discrimination, which is more negatively associated with sorting among naturalized immigrants than non-citizens, consistent with the “integration paradox” (Maxwell, 2013). These results suggest naturalization is strongly independently associated with sorting and naturalization may strengthen the link between other factors and sorting.

Given the import of political knowledge—knowing what “liberal” and “conservative” mean in U.S. politics—in shaping non-white sorting (Gay, 2014; Jefferson, 2024; Enders and Thornton, 2023), prior evidence suggesting naturalization causes political knowledge (Hainmueller et al., 2015), and speculation that the politically knowledgeable select into citizenship (DeSipio, 1996), we further discuss how political knowledge informs the naturalization-sorting link. First, meta-analytically and across eight surveys where political knowledge measures are available, the top-middle panel on Figure D5 shows knowledgeable immigrants are more sorted than unknowledgeable immigrants, who are weakly sorted regardless of citizenship. However, knowledgeable naturalized immigrants are more sorted than knowledgeable non-citizens, demonstrating political knowledge does not solely explain the naturalization-sorting link and that naturalization appears to be associated with a stronger knowledge-sorting link.²⁹ Second, we provide additional panel evidence that the naturalization-sorting link is net of the knowledge-sorting link. We re-estimate the significant 2012 LINES association between T1 partisanship and T2 ideology (adjusting for T1 ideology) for unknowledgeable non-citizens and citizens in addition to knowledgeable non-citizens and citizens. Consistent with our cross-sectional meta-analysis, only knowledgeable citizens exhibit significant partisanship-ideology correlations over time (Figure F12), implying the naturalization-sorting and knowledge-sorting link are mutually reinforcing.³⁰ Third, Kalmoe (2020) posits that ideology-partisanship associations are stronger in online rather than telephone or face-to-

²⁹See Section F.5 for details on how we measure political knowledge across surveys.

³⁰The small 2012 LINES panel sample means this evidence is suggestive. Future research should implement well-powered panels to more effectively test sorting over time conditional on naturalization and knowledge.

face surveys since they over-represent the politically knowledgeable. Thus, we re-estimate our meta-analytic estimates on Figure D5, top-middle panel, with only telephone surveys and our results remain the same (Figure F11), suggesting survey mode is not driving the naturalization-sorting association net of political knowledge.

Lastly, the naturalization-sorting link may reflect *multiple* factors that are associated with sorting and naturalization. We address this by augmenting the baseline model with interactions between ideology and: acculturation (Wong, 2000), language-dominance, political interest, political knowledge, political mobilization, non-electoral participation, income, education, identity centrality (Philpot, 2017), discrimination, and tenure or length of stay. This meta-analytic test is stronger than Figure D5 since *all* available within-survey moderators are interacted with ideology. This test does not change the results (Figure D4).

Additional Extensions and Robustness Checks

In Section F, we outline extensions and robustness checks that: demonstrate there is a heterogeneous association between the naturalization-sorting link and partisanship; demonstrate (mostly) no intra-ethno-racial group heterogeneity in the naturalization-sorting link among Asians and Latinos; demonstrate ethno-racially heterogeneous patterns in sorting and the naturalization-sorting link over time; evaluate geographic heterogeneity in the naturalization-sorting link (Preuhs and Hero, 2025); demonstrate our results are robust to using alternative partisanship measures (politician and party evaluations); demonstrate our results are robust to using policy index ideology measures, which may be less subject to construct invalidity (Ansolabehere et al., 2008; Jefferson, 2024; Enders and Thornton, 2023); conduct sensitivity analyses demonstrating the risk of omitted variables attenuating the naturalization-sorting association to 0 is low (Cinelli and Hazlett, 2020); demonstrate which covariates explain the most variation in the naturalization-sorting link via mediation analyses (Tingley et al., 2014). In short, political knowledge and registration are critical variables in explaining the naturalization-sorting association (Rosenstone and Hansen, 1993; Hainmueller et al., 2015; Jefferson, 2024), but do not explain all of the association; demonstrate that naturalization

is associated with *both* social *and* ideological sorting (Mason, 2018; Konicki, 2025); and demonstrate that legal status short of naturalization is unassociated with sorting.

Conclusion

Since *The American Voter*, explicating how much ideology predicts partisanship has been foundational to understanding political behavior (Campbell, 1980). Partisan-ideological sorting shapes partisan voting, issue voting, ideological cross-pressure, affective polarization, and partisan bias (Levendusky, 2009; Mason, 2015; Levendusky and Malhotra, 2016; Mason, 2018; Iyengar et al., 2019; Ciuk, 2023; Konicki, 2025). Sorting has also increased significantly, particularly among U.S-born Anglo whites (Mason, 2018; Levendusky, 2009; Enders and Thornton, 2022; Konicki, 2025), underscoring its relevance. Concomitantly, immigrants, who tend to be less familiar with American politics, are growing as a share of the public and electorate. Thus, a substantively important question is whether immigrants will politically assimilate and sort like the U.S.-born as they enter the electorate via naturalization, which could have consequences on mass polarization in an increasingly diverse United States.

We adjudicate between competing theoretical perspectives on the relationship between naturalization and sorting and identify a robust meta-analytic average naturalization-sorting link using 27 immigrant surveys across 36 years and four ethno-racial groups. We find the naturalization-sorting link is heterogeneous by ethno-racial group, with Asian, Latino, and white (to a lesser degree) naturalized immigrants closing the gap on sorting with U.S.-born Anglo whites relative to their non-citizen counterparts. Naturalized Black immigrants sort in a *bounded* manner: naturalized Black liberals are more likely to identify as Democrats, but naturalized Black conservatives do not sort into the Republican party. Our findings have important substantive, theoretical, and methodological implications: 1) the growth in the immigrant population will not mitigate polarization despite purported constraints to sorting among immigrants irrespective of citizenship status, but at least immigrants will support parties consistent with their ideological dispositions despite their newcomer status; 2) the link between naturalization and political assimilation (at least among Latinos/Asians) is even

stronger than what the literature suggests since sorting is arguably a more cognitively taxing dimension of assimilation than partisan identification or the adoption of issue positions akin to Anglo whites; 3) although some research is bullish on the link between naturalization and political integration, the relationship between naturalization and political assimilation is not uniform. We bring new theory and evidence to bear demonstrating that race and ethnicity may structure the degree to which naturalization is associated with political assimilation; and 4) consistent with prior research, our evidence suggests ideology scales have weak construct validity among underrepresented immigrant-origin groups (i.e. non-citizens), suggesting future research should continue to explore where and why canonical attitudinal constructs fail to align with expectations across an increasingly diverse set of groups in the U.S.

Our theory and evidence also speaks to competing models of partisan identity formation. Inconsistent with the Michigan model, which emphasizes early-life socialization and partisan stability (Campbell, 1980), we find immigrants develop partisan attachments based on their ideological dispositions through institutional engagement occurring later in life (Hajnal and Lee, 2011). If individuals can acquire partisan identities and ideological-partisan alignment through processes like naturalization, then partisanship may be more flexible than the traditional model implies. The patterns documented in this paper suggest partisanship varies with political experience and context (Hajnal and Lee, 2011).

There are three limitations with our evidence. First, naturalization is not random. Although our tests ruling out alternative mechanisms are helpful in assessing the sensitivity of the relationship between ideology and partisanship net of several confounders, we cannot fully rule out omitted variable bias or selection. That said, our findings are consistent with credibly identified evidence demonstrating that citizenship causes immigrant socio-political integration (Hainmueller et al., 2015; Hainmueller et al., 2017), but not necessarily economic integration (Hainmueller et al., 2026). Moreover, selection bias *does not invalidate the descriptive importance of our evidence*. Prima facie, immigrant citizens are integrated in the electorate. Given immigrant voters are a growing and relatively understudied segment of the electorate,

it is still valuable to diagnose the extent to which they sort along partisan-ideological lines, regardless of whether the sorting is the downstream consequence of naturalization or the product of selection into citizenship. This is why our theory prices in selection as part of the explanation for the naturalization-sorting link. In short, selection does not negate the value of our evidence, but does underlie the need for further efforts to assess mechanisms driving the naturalization-sorting link.³¹ Moreover, while we do not claim a design-based causal effect of naturalization on sorting, our study makes a core contribution as theory-led description. Assembling credible facts that adjudicate among competing explanations is itself scientific progress (Spirling and Stewart, 2025). By diagnosing sorting among immigrant subgroups, tracing heterogeneity, and showing which ancillary tests do—and do not—move the estimates, we narrow the set of plausible explanations for the evidence. Additionally, our paper delivers clear, comparable, and complete meta-analytic evidence (Kadt and Grzymala-Busse, 2025). Concretely, we (i) document the cross-survey regularity that immigrant citizens are more sorted than non-citizens; (ii) show ethno-racial, contextual, and temporal heterogeneity; and (iii) assemble convergent ancillary tests—null associations between citizenship and ideology, panel cross-lag estimates, moderation by nine factors potentially prognostic of sorting, and robustness to alternative moderators—that collectively raise the posterior odds on a causal role for naturalization in strengthening the ideology-partisanship link. Thus, our results are valuable even absent a causal estimand as they strengthen the naturalization-as-integration account and set clear targets for future work to test the causal link directly.

The second limitation is that, as indicated in Section E, immigrant panel data is limited and we therefore have limited capacity to evaluate ethno-racial heterogeneity in the naturalization-sorting link over time. Two of our four panel datasets only sample Latino immigrants, and the other two have such small sample sizes (and in the case of the CES, are unrepresentative for several reasons) such that assessing ethno-racial heterogeneity in the naturalization-sorting link is impossible to do with confidence. To the extent we can assess ethno-racial

³¹Although Section F outlines evidence that registration and political knowledge, either through selection or downstream of naturalization, explain quite a bit, but not all, of the naturalization-sorting link.

heterogeneity in the naturalization-sorting link, the link appears to only hold among non-whites but not whites because both non-citizen and naturalized whites sort over time in the GSS. This is consistent with our assumption that even white non-citizens are well-situated to sort at baseline because of their relative access to resources that generate sorting (Table F16). However, the CES is different in that only non-whites sort over time irrespective of citizenship status. But, as alluded to on Section E, CES immigrants are highly sorted and CES white immigrants are unrepresentative in that they are especially sorted regardless of naturalization such that they may have already hit a ceiling in sorting over time (Table F17).³² Future research should implement well-powered, representative, panel surveys across multiple ethno-racial groups to fully assess sorting over time by naturalization.

The third limitation is that our ethno-racial heterogeneity analysis is light on mechanisms. Race is a bundle of sticks, and several factors inherent to cross-racial differences may drive the heterogeneous naturalization-sorting link we derive across race/ethnicity (Sen and Wasow, 2016). Future research should theorize on and test plausible mechanisms³³ (e.g. co-racial social pressure, socio-economic differences, differences in political mobilization, exposure to Anglo whites, group consciousness) that explain ethno-racial differences in the naturalization-sorting link to more fully characterize political behavior in a diversifying United States.

References

Abramowitz, Alan (2022). “The polarized American electorate: The rise of partisan-ideological consistency and its consequences”. *Political Science Quarterly* 137.4.

³²Baseline Pearson’s ρ coefficients show non-white non-citizen, non-white citizen, white non-citizen, and white citizen immigrants in the CES are sorted at 0.49, 0.61, 0.68, 0.74, but sorted at 0.1, 0.1, 0.17, 0.3 in the GSS.

³³Evaluating these mechanisms is difficult in our data, in part due to limited within-ethno-racial group statistical power and a lack of data availability on mechanisms across surveys (e.g. co-racial social pressure, group consciousness). However, to the extent perceived ethno-racial group discrimination is a dimension of group consciousness, we do provide meta-analytic evidence that the naturalization-sorting link is weaker among immigrants who perceive more ethno-racial discrimination (Figure D5, bottom-middle panel). Furthermore, we show that Black immigrant sorting (regardless of naturalization) is lower in zipcodes with more co-racials (Figure F14), consistent with the notion co-racial social pressure may mitigate sorting. However, these results are only from the CES, which shows an inverse naturalization-sorting relationship and is inconsistent with our meta-analytic naturalization-sorting association among Black immigrants using all Black immigrant surveys.

- Abramowitz, Alan and Kyle Saunders (2008). “Is polarization a myth?” *JOP* 70.2.
- Alba, Richard (2020). *The great demographic illusion: Majority, minority, and the expanding American mainstream*. Princeton University Press.
- Alba, Richard, Philip Kasinitz, and Mary C Waters (2011). “The kids are (mostly) alright: Second-generation assimilation”. *Social Forces* 89.3.
- Ansola-behere, Stephen, Jonathan Rodden, and James Snyder (2008). “The strength of issues: Using multiple measures to gauge preference stability, ideological constraint, and issue voting”. *APSR* 102.2.
- Arel-Bundock, Vincent et al. (2026). “Quantitative political science research is greatly underpowered”. *The Journal of politics* 88.1.
- Borenstein, Michael et al. (2021). *Introduction to meta-analysis*. John Wiley & Sons.
- Bowler, Shaun, Stephen Nicholson, and Gary Segura (2006). “Earthquakes and aftershocks: Race, direct democracy, and partisan change”. *AJPS* 50.1.
- Brady, Henry E, Sidney Verba, and Kay Lehman Schlozman (1995). “Beyond SES: A resource model of political participation”. *American political science review* 89.2.
- Branton, Regina (2007). “Latino attitudes toward various areas of public policy: The importance of acculturation”. *Political Research Quarterly* 60.2.
- Cain, Bruce E, D Roderick Kiewiet, and Carole J Uhlaner (1991). “The acquisition of partisanship by Latinos and Asian Americans”. *American Journal of Political Science*.
- Campbell, Angus (1980). *The american voter*. University of Chicago Press.
- Carliner, Geoffrey (2000). “The language ability of US immigrants: Assimilation and cohort effects”. *International Migration Review* 34.1.
- Cho, Wendy K Tam (1999). “Naturalization, socialization, participation: Immigrants and (non-) voting”. *The Journal of Politics* 61.4.
- Cinelli, Carlos and Chad Hazlett (2020). “Making sense of sensitivity: Extending omitted variable bias”. *Journal of the Royal Statistical Society: Series B (Statistical Methodology)* 82.1.

- Ciuk, David J (2023). “Value disagreement and partisan sorting in the American mass public”. *Political Research Quarterly* 76.1.
- Davis, Nicholas T (2019). “Identity sorting and political compromise”. *American Politics Research* 47.2.
- Dawson, Michael C (1995). *Behind the mule: Race and class in African-American politics*. Princeton University Press.
- DeSipio, Louis (1996). “Making citizens or good citizens? Naturalization as a predictor of organizational and electoral behavior among Latino immigrants”. *Hispanic Journal of Behavioral Sciences* 18.2.
- (2011). “Immigrant incorporation in an era of weak civic institutions: Immigrant civic and political participation in the United States”. *American Behavioral Scientist* 55.9.
- Downs, A. (1957). *An Economic Theory of Democracy*. Harper.
- Enders, Adam and Judd Thornton (2022). “Polarization in Black and White: An Examination of Racial Differences in Polarization and Sorting Trends”. *Public Opinion Quarterly* 86.2.
- (2023). “Race, belief system complexity, and partisan-ideological sorting”. *Politics, Groups, and Identities*.
- Fouka, Vasiliki, Soumyajit Mazumder, and Marco Tabellini (2022). “From immigrants to Americans: Race and assimilation during the Great Migration”. *The Review of Economic Studies* 89.2.
- Freeman, Lance (2002). “Does spatial assimilation work for black immigrants in the US?”. *Urban Studies* 39.11.
- Gay, Claudine (2014). “Knowledge matters: policy cross-pressures and Black partisanship”. *Political Behavior* 36.
- Gerber, Alan S, Donald P Green, and Ron Shachar (2003). “Voting may be habit-forming: evidence from a randomized field experiment”. *American journal of political science* 47.3.
- Gordon, Milton M (1964). *Assimilation in American life: The role of race, religion, and national origins*. Oxford University Press, USA.

- Green, Donald P, Bradley Palmquist, and Eric Schickler (2004). *Partisan hearts and minds: Political parties and the social identities of voters*. Yale University Press.
- Hainmueller, Jens, Dominik Hangartner, and Giuseppe Pietrantuono (2015). “Naturalization fosters the long-term political integration of immigrants”. *PNAS* 112.41.
- (2017). “Catalyst or crown: Does naturalization promote the long-term social integration of immigrants?” *American Political Science Review* 111.2.
- Hainmueller, Jens et al. (2026). “The socioeconomic returns to citizenship: A randomized controlled trial”. *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences* 123.5.
- Hajnal, Zoltan and Taeku Lee (2011). *Why Americans don’t join the party: Race, immigration, and the failure (of political parties) to engage the electorate*. Princeton University Press.
- Haller, William, Alejandro Portes, and Scott Lynch (2011). “Dreams fulfilled, dreams shattered: Determinants of segmented assimilation in the second generation”. *Social forces* 89.3.
- Huddy, Leonie, Lilliana Mason, and S Nechama Horwitz (2016). “Political identity convergence: On being Latino, becoming a Democrat, and getting active”. *RSF: The Russell Sage Foundation Journal of the Social Sciences* 2.3.
- Iyengar, Shanto et al. (2019). “The origins and consequences of affective polarization in the United States”. *Annual review of political science* 22.
- Jefferson, Hakeem (2024). “The curious case of Black “conservatives”: Assessing the validity of the liberal-conservative scale among Black Americans”. *Public Opinion Quarterly* 88.3.
- Jennings, M Kent, Laura Stoker, and Jake Bowers (2009). “Politics across generations: Family transmission reexamined”. *The Journal of Politics* 71.3.
- Just, Aida and Christopher J Anderson (2015). “Dual allegiances? Immigrants’ attitudes toward immigration”. *The Journal of Politics* 77.1.
- Kadt, Daniel de and Anna Grzymala-Busse (2025). “Good Description”.
- Kalmoe, Nathan (2020). “Uses and abuses of ideology in political psychology”. *Political Psychology* 41.4.

- Kasinitz, Philip and Mary C Waters (2024). “Becoming white or becoming mainstream?: defining the endpoint of assimilation”. *Journal of Ethnic and Migration Studies* 50.1.
- Konicki, John (2025). “The Rise of Affective Polarization: Is It What We Think, or Who We Are?”
- Lee, Jennifer and Dian Sheng (2024). “The asian american assimilation paradox”. *Journal of Ethnic and Migration Studies* 50.1.
- Levendusky, Matthew (2009). *The partisan sort: How liberals became Democrats and conservatives became Republicans*. University of Chicago Press.
- Levendusky, Matthew S and Neil Malhotra (2016). “(Mis) perceptions of partisan polarization in the American public”. *Public Opinion Quarterly* 80.S1.
- Levin, Ines (2013). “Political inclusion of Latino immigrants: Becoming a citizen and political participation”. *American Politics Research* 41.4.
- Lipsitz, George (2006). *The possessive investment in whiteness: How white people profit from identity politics*. Temple University Press.
- Manning, Nathan and Kathy Edwards (2014). “Does civic education for young people increase political participation? A systematic review”. *Educational review* 66.1.
- Mason, Lilliana (2015). ““I disrespectfully agree”: The differential effects of partisan sorting on social and issue polarization”. *American journal of political science* 59.1.
- (2018). *Uncivil agreement: How politics became our identity*. University of Chicago Press.
- Maxwell, Rahsaan (2013). “Assimilation and Political Attitude Trade-Offs”. *Outsiders No More*.
- McCann, James A and Katsuo A Nishikawa Chavez (2016). “Partisanship by invitation: Immigrants respond to political campaigns”. *The Journal of Politics* 78.4.
- Michelson, Melissa R (2005). “Meeting the challenge of Latino voter mobilization”. *The Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 601.1.
- Pantoja, Adrian and Gary Segura (2003). “Fear and loathing in California: Contextual threat and political sophistication among Latino voters”. *Political Behavior* 25.

- Philpot, Tasha S (2017). *Conservative but not Republican*. Cambridge University Press.
- Portes, Alejandro and Min Zhou (1993). “The new second generation: Segmented assimilation and its variants”. *The annals of the American academy of political and social science* 530.1.
- Preuhs, Robert R and Rodney E Hero (2025). “State Racial/Ethnic Context and Partisan-Ideological Sorting”. *State Politics & Policy Quarterly* 25.4.
- Ramakrishnan, Karthick S (2013). “Incorporation versus assimilation”. *Outsiders No More?: Models of Immigrant Political Incorporation*.
- Ramakrishnan, S Karthick (2006). *Democracy in immigrant America: Changing demographics and political participation*. Stanford University Press.
- Ramirez, Ricardo and Janelle Wong (2006). “Nonpartisan Latino and Asian American Contactability and Voter Mobilization”. *Transforming Politics, Transforming America: The Political and Civic Incorporation of Immigrants in the United States*.
- Raychaudhuri, Tanika (2020). “The social roots of Asian American partisan attitudes”. *Asian Pacific American Politics*. Routledge.
- Roman, Marcel F (2023). “Living in the shadow of deportation: How immigration enforcement forestalls political assimilation”. *Political Research Quarterly* 76.3.
- Rosenstone, Steven J and John Mark Hansen (1993). *Mobilization, participation, and democracy in America*. New York: Macmillan.
- Sawilowsky, Shlomo S (2009). “New effect size rules of thumb”. *Journal of modern applied statistical methods* 8.2.
- Sears, David, Felix Danbold, and Vanessa Zavala (2016). “Incorporation of Latino immigrants into the American party system”. *The Russell Sage Foundation Journal of the Social Sciences* 2.3.
- Sen, Maya and Omar Wasow (2016). “Race as a bundle of sticks: Designs that estimate effects of seemingly immutable characteristics”. *Annual Review of Political Science* 19.1.

- Shorbagy, Manar (2023). “The paradox of visibility: Black America and soft power”. *National Review of Black Politics* 4.3-4.
- Simonsen, Kristina Bakkær (2017). “Does citizenship always further Immigrants’ feeling of belonging to the host nation? A study of policies and public attitudes in 14 Western democracies”. *Comparative Migration Studies* 5.
- Smith, Candis (2014). *Black mosaic: The politics of Black pan-ethnic diversity*. NYU Press.
- Spirling, Arthur and Brandon Stewart (2025). “What good is a regression? Inference to the best explanation and the practice of political science research”. *JOP* 87.4.
- Telles, Edward E and Vilma Ortiz (2009). *Generations of exclusion: Mexican Americans, assimilation, and race*. Russell Sage Foundation New York.
- Teske, Raymond and Bardin Nelson (1974). “Acculturation and assimilation: A clarification”. *American ethnologist* 1.2.
- Tingley, Dustin et al. (2014). “Mediation: R package for causal mediation analysis”. *Journal of statistical software* 59.
- Uhlener, Carole J, Bruce E Cain, and D Roderick Kiewiet (1989). “Political participation of ethnic minorities in the 1980s”. *Political Behavior* 11.3.
- White, Ismail K and Chryl N Laird (2020). “Steadfast democrats: How social forces shape Black political behavior”. *Steadfast Democrats*. Princeton University Press.
- Wilson, Anne E, Victoria A Parker, and Matthew Feinberg (2020). “Polarization in the contemporary political and media landscape”. *Current opinion in behavioral sciences* 34.
- Wong, Janelle S (2000). “The effects of age and political exposure on the development of party identification among Asian American and Latino immigrants in the United States”. *Political Behavior* 22.

Appendices

Contents

Appendix A Motivation Plot	1
Appendix B Survey details	1
B.1 Additional methodological details	1
B.2 Measurement of partisanship and ideology	2
B.3 Control covariates across surveys	2
Appendix C Main Results Table (β_1)	3
Appendix D Accounting for alternative explanations	3
D.1 Association between ideology and citizenship	3
D.2 Sorting among unregistered and registered citizens	4
D.3 Ruling out omitted interaction bias	4
D.4 Alternative Explanations	6
Appendix E Panel Evidence	7
Appendix F Additional extensions and robustness checks	10
F.1 The naturalization-sorting link and aggregate partisanship	13
F.2 Sensitivity Analyses	15
F.3 Within-Group heterogeneity	16
F.4 Sorting over time	17
F.5 Political Knowledge Measurement	17
F.6 Telephone survey knowledge replication	18
F.7 Probing knowledge with panel evidence	19
F.8 NPS 2004 Black Immigrant Knowledge Probing	19

F.9	Contextual effects	20
F.10	Alternative partisanship measurement	21
F.11	Alternative ideology measurement	22
F.12	Mechanism Assessment	24
F.13	What about social sorting?	25
F.14	Disaggregating Non-Citizens by Legal Status	28
F.14.1	Cross-Sectional Data	28
F.14.2	Panel Data	28
F.15	Panel Evidence By Race	29

A Motivation Plot

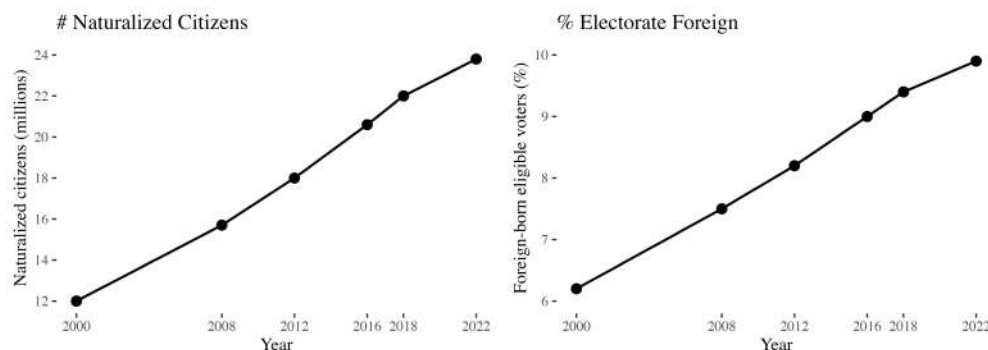


Figure A1: The immigrant electorate is increasing (Source: Pew Research).

B Survey details

B.1 Additional methodological details

LNPS 1989 (Latino): See <https://www.icpsr.umich.edu/web/ICPSR/studies/6841>. We subset the data to the 1383 foreign-born respondents in this data for our analysis.

KFF 1999 (Latino): See <https://www.kff.org/public-opinion/national-survey-on-latinos-in-america/>. We subset to the 1478 foreign-born respondents in this data for our analysis.

PNAAS 2000 (Asian): See <https://www.icpsr.umich.edu/web/ICPSR/studies/3832>. The data are subset to the 913 Asian immigrants in the sample.

NPS 2004 (Latino, Black, Asian): See <http://icpsr.umich.edu/web/ICPSR/studies/24483>. We subset the data to the 410, 379, and 231 foreign-born Latino, Asian, and Black respondents respectively.

LNS 2006 (Latino): See <https://www.icpsr.umich.edu/web/RCMD/studies/20862/publications>. For the purposes of this paper, the LNS is subsetted to 5446 foreign-born respondents.

NAAS 2008 (Asian): See <https://www.icpsr.umich.edu/web/RCMD/studies/31481>. For the purposes of this paper, the NAAS is subsetted to 4568 foreign-born respondents.

Pew 2010: See <https://www.pewresearch.org/dataset/2010-national-survey-of-latinos/>. We subset the data to the 831 foreign-born respondents in this survey for our main analysis.

LINEs 2012 (Latino): See <https://www.icpsr.umich.edu/web/RCMD/studies/36680/publications>.

RWJF 2015 (Latino): See <https://pubmed.ncbi.nlm.nih.gov/28213396/>. The data are subset to the 611 Latino foreign-born respondents in this survey.

CMPS 2016 (Latino, Asian): See <https://www.icpsr.umich.edu/web/ICPSR/studies/38040>. The data are subset to 721 Latino foreign-born individuals and 1371 Asian foreign-born individuals.

LINEs 2016 (Latino): See <https://www.icpsr.umich.edu/web/RCMD/studies/38129>.

Pew 2017 (Latino): See <https://www.pewresearch.org/dataset/2017-hispanic-post-election-survey/>. For the purposes of analysis, the data were subset to 450 foreign-born respondents.

CMPS 2020 (Latino, Asian, Black): See <https://www.icpsr.umich.edu/web/ICPSR/studies/39096/publications>. Data are subset to the 1185, 1791, and 274 Latino, Asian, and Black foreign-born respondents.

BSP 2021, 2025 (Latino): These surveys are nationally representative of Latino immigrants (N = 1000; N = 1200) fielded through Barreto-Segura Partners. These surveys are bilingual and population-weighted to represent the national Latino immigrant population according to Census demographic parameters.

CMPS 2024 (Latino, Asian, Black): See https://cms.ss.ucla.edu/wp-content/uploads/2025/12/2024-CMPS-Data-Extract-II-Combined-Methodology-Statement_112425.pdf. For the purposes of our analysis, we subset the data to the 1426, 2250, and 517 Latino, Asian, and Black immigrants respectively.

CES 2006-25 (Latino, Asian, Black, White): We use 20 years of the Cooperative Election Study survey, an online survey conducted around November of each year, asking a range of questions on political behavior and public opinion. The survey includes population weights meant to be representative of the national adult US population via matching and post-stratification weighting. Across the CES, we subset to the 15652, 7895, 6134, and 14910 Latino, Asian, Black, and white immigrants respectively.

B.2 Measurement of partisanship and ideology

Table B1: Measurement of Ideology and Partisanship Across Surveys

Scale	Surveys
3-pt Ideo., 7-pt PID	KFF 1999 (Latino)
5-pt Ideo., 5-pt PID	Pew 2010 (Latino), BSP 2025 (Latino)
5-pt Ideo., 7-pt PID	PNAAS 2000 (Asian), CES 2006–25 (Latino, Asian, Black, White), LINES 2012 (Latino), CMPS 2016 (Latino, Asian), CMPS 2020 (Latino, Asian, Black), BSP 2021 (Latino), CMPS 2024 (Latino, Asian, Black)
7-pt Ideo., 7-pt PID	LNS 2006 (Latino), NAAS 2008 (Asian), NPS 2004 (Latino, Asian, Black), RWJF 2015 (Latino), LINES 2016 (Latino)
5-pt Ideo., 3-pt PID	Pew 2017 (Latino)
7-pt Ideo., 3-pt PID	LNPS 1989 (Latino)

B.3 Control covariates across surveys

Table B2: Control covariates used across surveys

Survey (Group)	Controls
LNPS 1989 (Latino)	Age; Woman; Married; Income; College; Unemployed; Homeowner; Educ.; Pol. interest; Perceived discrim.; Participation index
KFF 1999 (Latino)	Age; Woman; Catholic; Spanish interv.; Nat. origin (Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.); Married; High income; College; Unemployed; Educ.; Perceived discrim.; Participation index
PNAAS 2000 (Asian)	Pol. interest; Asian origin (Chinese, Filipino, Indian, Viet., Korean); Married; Income; Unemployed; Homeowner; Educ.; Perceived discrim.; Participation index
NPS 2004 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Pol. interest; Married; Income; College; Unemployed; Homeowner; Perceived discrim.; Educ.; Pol. knowledge; Participation index. <i>Latino only:</i> Nat. origin (Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.)
CES 2006–25 (Latino, Asian, Black, White)	Year FE; Age; News interest; Religion; Unemployed; College; Family income; Renter; Tenure at address; Union member; Marital status; Has child; No health ins.; Military status
LNS 2006 (Latino)	Prop. life in US; Woman; Spanish interv.; Catholic; Married; Nat. origin (Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.); Homeowner; College; Unemployed; Income; Pol. interest; Perceived discrim.; Educ.; Identity centrality
NAAS 2008 (Asian)	Prop. life in US; Woman; Non-Eng. interv.; Voter reg.; Married; Asian origin (Chinese, Indian, Filipino, Viet., Korean, Japanese); Homeowner; College; Unemployed; Income; Pol. interest; Educ.
Pew 2010 (Latino)	Age; Woman; Catholic; Nat. origin (Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.); Spanish interv.; Prop. life in US; Income; College; Homeowner; Unemployed; Educ.; Perceived discrim.; Pol. interest; Protest/discussion items
LINES 2012 (Latino)	Age; Woman; Catholic; Nat. origin (Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.); Married; Income; College; Unemployed; Homeowner
RWJF 2015 (Latino)	Age; Woman; Catholic; Nat. origin (Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.); Spanish interv.; Income; College; Pol. interest; Participation index
CMPS 2016 (Latino, Asian)	Prop. life in US; Non-Eng./Span. interv.; Age; Woman; Nat. origin (Latino: Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.; Asian: Chinese, Indian, Korean, Filipino, Viet., Japanese); Married; Income; College; Unemployed; Homeowner; Perceived discrim.; Educ.; Identity centrality; Pol. interest
LINES 2016 (Latino)	Prop. life in US; Spanish interv.; Age; Woman; Nat. origin (Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.); Married; Income; College; Unemployed; Homeowner; Perceived discrim.; Educ.; Pol. interest
Pew 2017 (Latino)	Age; Woman; Catholic; Married; Income; College; Unemployed

(cont. on next page)

Table B2 (cont.)

Survey (Group)	Controls
CMPS 2020 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Prop. life in US; Non-Eng./Span. interv.; Age; Woman; Nat. origin (Latino: Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.; Asian: Chinese, Indian, Korean, Filipino, Viet., Japanese; Black: Nigerian, Jamaican, Haitian, Ghanaian, Other); Married; Income; College; Unemployed; Homeowner; Perceived discrim.; Educ.; Pol. interest
BSP 2021 (Latino)	Pol. interest; Spanish interv.; Age; Woman; Married; Nat. origin (Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.); Income; College; Unemployed; Perceived discrim.; Educ.; Participation index
BSP 2025 (Latino)	Pol. interest; Spanish interv.; Age; Woman; Nat. origin (Mex., Cuban, Dom., Salv.); Income; College; Pol. knowledge; Participation index

C Main Results Table (β_1)

Table C3: Partisan-ideological sorting is higher among naturalized immigrants relative to non-citizens

	Partisanship													
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)	(12)	(13)	(14)
β_1	0.21* (0.09)	0.08 (0.05)	0.22* (0.11)	0.11** (0.04)	0.24** (0.09)	0.03 (0.08)	0.37*** (0.10)	0.26** (0.09)	0.25*** (0.05)	0.39*** (0.12)	0.34*** (0.06)	0.32*** (0.08)	0.48*** (0.06)	0.21*** (0.02)
Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Survey	LNPS	KFF	NPS	LNS	Pew	LINES	RWJF	CMPS	LINES	Pew	CMPS	BSP	CMPS	CES
Sample	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino	Latino
Year	1989	1999	2004	2006	2010	2012	2015	2016	2016	2017	2020	2021	2024	2006-25
R ²	0.10	0.10	0.21	0.05	0.13	0.10	0.17	0.26	0.13	0.12	0.24	0.14	0.26	0.24
N	1383	1478	410	5446	831	853	611	721	1532	450	1185	1000	1426	16 097

	Partisanship													
	(15)	(16)	(17)	(18)	(19)	(20)	(21)	(22)	(23)	(24)	(25)	(26)	(27)	
β_1	0.14* (0.06)	0.00 (0.07)	0.14 (0.10)	0.15*** (0.03)	0.30*** (0.06)	0.14* (0.06)	0.21*** (0.05)	0.21*** (0.03)	0.36** (0.14)	0.36* (0.16)	0.21* (0.09)	−0.05 (0.04)	0.07*** (0.02)	
Controls	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	
Survey	BSP	PNAAS	NPS	NAAS	CMPS	CMPS	CMPS	CES	NPS	CMPS	CMPS	CES	CES	
Sample	Latino	Asian	Asian	Asian	Asian	Asian	Asian	Asian	Black	Black	Black	Black	White	
Year	2025	2000	2004	2008	2016	2020	2024	2006-25	2004	2020	2024	2006-25	2006-25	
R ²	0.29	0.09	0.31	0.12	0.24	0.33	0.23	0.32	0.09	0.20	0.21	0.13	0.38	
N	1200	913	379	4568	1371	1791	2250	8454	231	274	517	6303	15 254	

+ p < 0.1, * p < 0.05, ** p < 0.01, *** p < 0.001

Heteroskedasticity-consistent (HC2) standard errors in parentheses.

D Accounting for alternative explanations

D.1 Association between ideology and citizenship

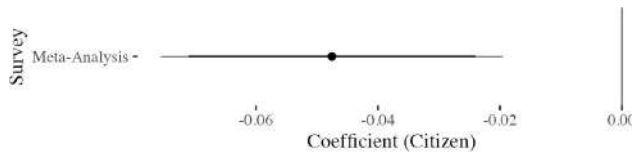


Figure D2: Citizenship is not strongly associated with ideology among immigrants.

The x-axis is the meta-analytic citizenship coefficient across the 27 surveys. Not shown: 21/27 citizenship survey-level coefficients are insignificant. Estimate from fully-specified models. Coefficient is standardized. 95% CIs from HC2 robust SEs displayed.

D.2 Sorting among unregistered and registered citizens

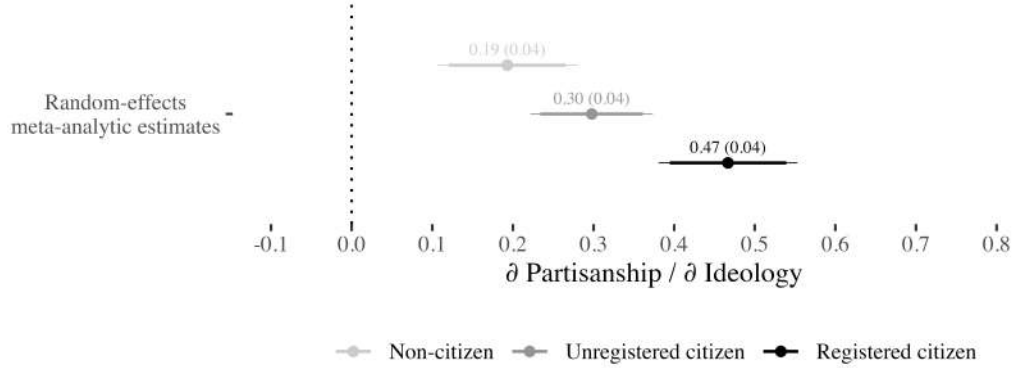


Figure D3: Unregistered citizens are more sorted than non-citizens, but registered citizens are the most sorted. Ideology-partisanship associations are from fully-specified models and pooled averages via random-effects meta-analysis. Surveys included in the meta-analysis: 2006 LNS (Latino), 2008 NAAS (Asian) 2010 Pew (Latino), 2016 CMPS (Latino, Asian), 2017 Pew, 2020 CMPS (Latino, Asian, Black), BSP 2021 (Latino), 2024 CMPS (Latino, Asian, Black), CES 2006-25 (Latino, Asian, Black, white), BSP 2025 (Latino). 95% CIs from HC2 robust SEs displayed.

D.3 Ruling out omitted interaction bias

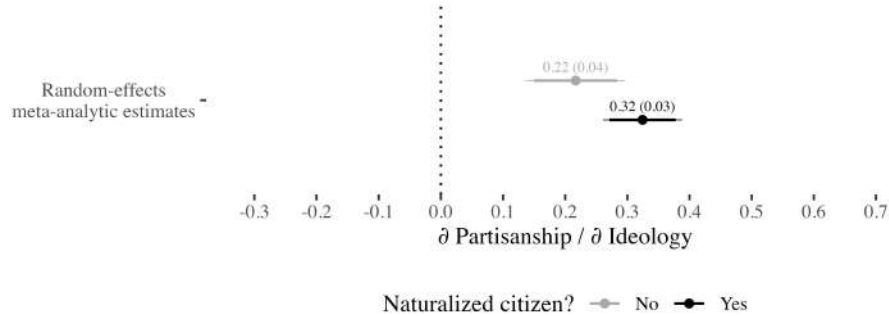


Figure D4: Naturalized immigrants are more sorted than non-citizens (net of omitted interactions). X-axis characterizes marginal standardized coefficients for ideology (outcome = partisanship) by citizenship status (denoted by color) simulated from the covariate-adjusted linear model specified in the Estimation section, y-axis is the survey at use and corresponding ethno-racial group. Annotation denotes random-effects meta-analytic ideology/partisanship associations for immigrant citizens and non-citizens. Formal coefficient difference tests show meta-analytic partisan-ideology association coefficients for naturalized immigrants and non-citizens are statistically distinguishable ($p < 0.05$). All surveys included in the meta-analysis. 95% CIs from HC2 robust SEs displayed. See Table D4 for details on which alternative factors ideology is interacted with.

Table D4: Alternative factors that ideology are interacted with^a

Survey (Group)	Alternative Mechanisms
LNPS 1989 (Latino)	Acculturation; Income; Educ.; Perceived Discrim.; Pol. Interest; Pol. Mobilization; Non-Elec. Participation Index
KFF 1999 (Latino)	Acculturation; Income; Educ.; Perceived Discrim.; Lang.-Dominance; Non-Elec. Participation Index
PNAAS 2000 (Asian)	Acculturation; Income; Educ.; Perceived Discrim.; Pol. Interest; Non-Elec. Participation Index; Pol. Mobilization
NPS 2004 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Acculturation; Income; College; Educ.; Perceived Discrim.; Pol. Knowledge; Non-Elec. Participation Index
CES 2006–24 (Latino, Asian, Black, White)	Income; Educ.; Pol. Interest; Pol. Knowledge; Tenure at Address
LNS 2006 (Latino)	Acculturation; Income; College; Perceived/Experienced Discrim.; Identity Centrality; Pol. Knowledge; Pol. Interest; Lang.-Dominance
NAAS 2008 (Asian)	Acculturation; Income; College; Perceived/Experienced Discrim.; Pol. Interest; Non-Elec. Participation Index
Pew 2010 (Latino)	Acculturation; Income; College; Perceived/Experienced Discrim.; Identity Centrality; Pol. Interest; Lang.-Dominance; Non-Elec. Participation Index
LINES 2012 (Latino)	Income; College
RWJF 2015 (Latino)	Income; College; Pol. Interest; Lang.-Dominance; Non-Elec. Participation Index
CMPS 2016 (Latino, Asian)	Acculturation; Income; College; Pol. Interest; Perceived/Experienced Discrim.; Identity Centrality; Non-Elec. Participation Index; Pol. Mobilization; Lang.-Dominance
LINES 2016 (Latino)	Acculturation; Income; College; Pol. Interest; Perceived/Experienced Discrim.; Non-Elec. Participation Index; Lang.-Dominance
Pew 2017 (Latino)	Acculturation; Income; College
CMPS 2020 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Acculturation; Income; College; Educ.; Pol. Interest; Perceived/Experienced Discrim.; Non-Elec. Participation Index; Lang.-Dominance; Pol. Mobilization
BSP 2021 (Latino)	Acculturation; Income; College; Pol. Interest; Perceived Discrim.; Educ.; Non-Elec. Participation Index; Lang.-Dominance; Pol. Mobilization
CMPS 2024 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Acculturation; Income; College; Non-Elec. Participation Index; Pol. Interest; Perceived/Experienced Discrim.; Identity Centrality; Lang.-Dominance; Pol. Mobilization
BSP 2025 (Latino)	Acculturation; Income; College; Pol. Knowledge; Lang.-Dominance; Non-Elec. Participation Index

^aAcculturation proxied by proportion of life/years in US (Wong, 2000).

D.4 Alternative Explanations

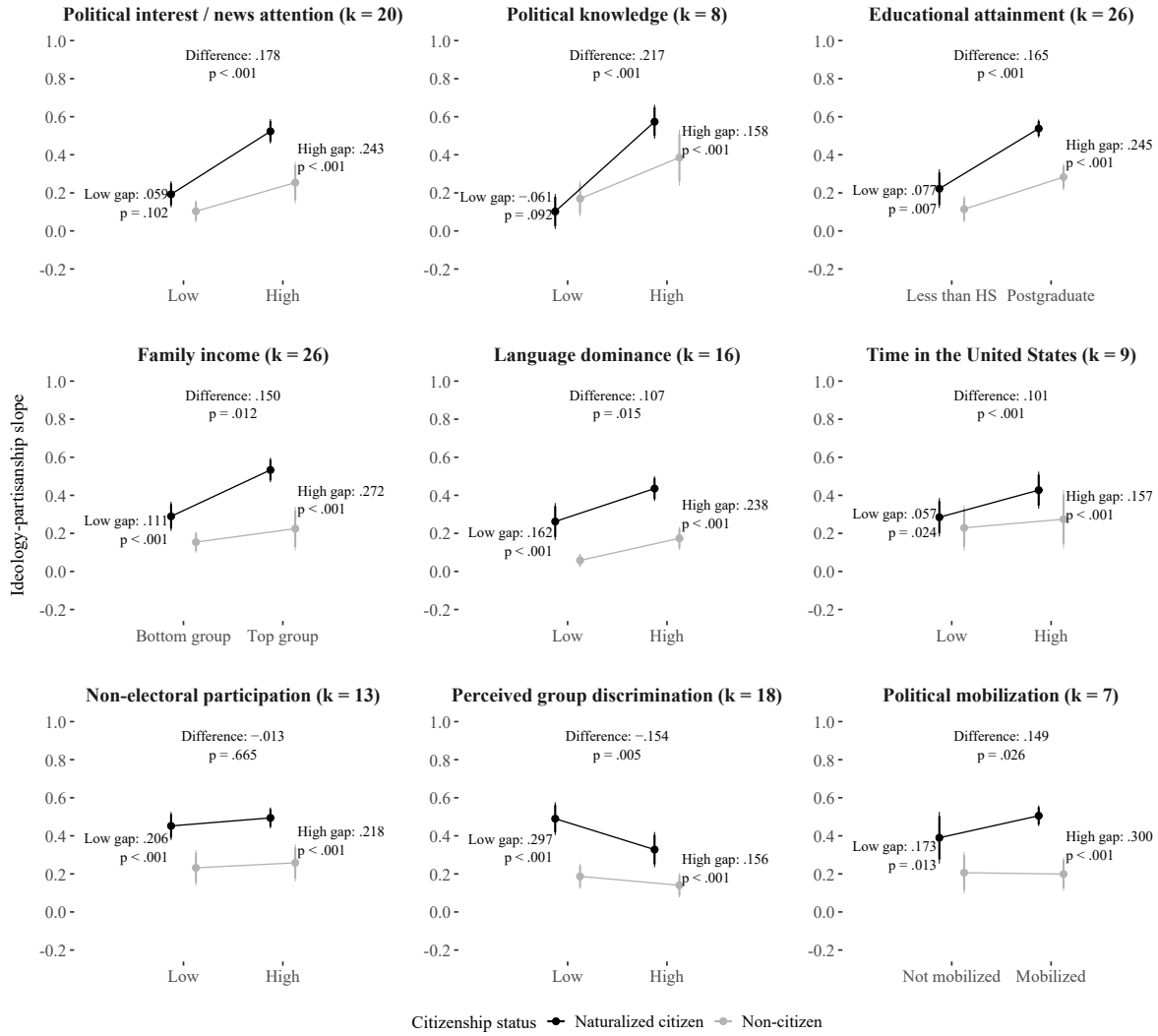


Figure D5: Naturalization is associated with sorting across alternative explanations for sorting. Points show random-effects meta-analytic estimates of the association between ideology and partisanship for naturalized immigrants (black) and non-citizens (gray) at low and high levels of each moderator. Three annotations are displayed on each plot: 1) the coefficient difference test p-value for those low on the moderator by citizenship status; 2) the coefficient difference test p-value for those high on the moderator by citizenship status; 3) the difference-in-differences (DD) coefficient across citizenship status and the moderators. If the DD coefficient is positive and significant, then the association between the relevant moderator variable and sorting is higher for citizens relative to non-citizens. Estimates are from augmented models with triple interactions between citizenship, ideology, and the alternative explanation. k denotes number of surveys out of the 27 in the main analysis that are included in each triple interaction test based on cross-survey moderator availability. 95% CIs from HC2 SEs.

E Panel Evidence

Table E5: Panel Dataset Catalog

Panel Dataset	Years	Foreign-Born	Immig. ID	Citizen ID	Ideology	PID	In Analysis
Survey of Income and Program Participation	Various	✓	✓	✓	✗	✗	✗
New Immigrant Survey	2003–2008	✓	✓	✓	✗	✗	✗
ANES Panels	2004–2024	✓ ^a	✗	✗	✓	✓	✗
GSS Panels	2006–2020	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
CES Panel	2010–2022	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Voter Study Group Panel	2011–2019	✓	✓	✗	✓	✓	✗
LINES Panel	2012; 2016	✓ ^b	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Annenberg Democracy Panel	2020	✓ ^a	✗	✗	✓	✓	✗

^a Samples only U.S. citizens.

^b Samples only Latino respondents.

Note: Foreign-Born = survey samples foreign-born, Immig. ID = foreign-born measure included, Citizen ID = citizenship status measure included, ideology = ideology measure included, PID = partisanship measure included.

We conducted a targeted search and cataloged available panel datasets on politics that may sample immigrant populations (Table E5). The catalog of panel datasets demonstrates challenges in effectively analyzing the naturalization-sorting link over time. Namely, many panel datasets a) do not sample non-citizens (e.g. the ANES and Annenberg Democracy panels); b) do not include measures of partisanship or ideology (e.g. the Survey of Income and Program Participation or the New Immigrant Survey); or c) do not measure either foreign-born status or citizenship status (e.g. the ANES panels, the Voter Study Group panel). Across the eight panels included in our catalog, only three sample foreign-born non-citizens, include measures of foreign-born status, include measures of citizenship, and include measures of both partisanship and ideology. These three panels are: the 2012 and 2016 LINES panels; the 2010-2014 and 2020-2022 CES panels; and the 2006-2010, 2008-2012, 2010-2014, and 2016-2020 GSS panels.

We analyze the 2012 and 2016 LINES panels as standalone surveys, and we pool the CES and GSS panels and convert them each to a two time period panel in order to maximize sample size and minimize attrition. Although the pooled conversion in the CES and GSS is not ideal, *this is critical* given the small sample sizes of the individual GSS and CES waves once subsetted to the immigrant population. How do we pool the existing CES and GSS panel waves into a two time period panel? In the GSS, we first subset the data to the immigrant population. Then, we use the 2-year interval panels for 2006-2010, 2008-2012, and 2010-2014, and only use data from wave 1 to wave 2 since attrition is highest between wave 1 to wave 3 (that is, 2006-2008; 2008-2010; 2010-2012). The 2016-2020 GSS panel is only two waves, so we leave that survey as is. Therefore, we have four individual panels with two time periods from the suite of GSS panels. We then stack the four GSS panels, with time period 1 being equal to baseline measurement in 2006, 2008, 2010 and 2016, and time period 2 being equal to the respondents recontacted in 2008, 2010, 2012, and 2020 respectively. To ensure our results are not an artifact of an individual GSS panel from the four we collect, we always use wave fixed effects in our regression analysis with the GSS. Likewise, in the CES, we first subset the data to the immigrant population. The 2010-2014 panel has limited attrition, so time period 1 is 2010 and time period 2 is 2014. The 2020-2022 panel is just two periods, so we leave it as is. We then stack the two CES panels, with time period 1 being equal to baseline measurement in 2010 and 2020, and time period 2 being equal to 2014 and 2022 respectively. Again, to ensure our results are not an artifact of an individual CES panel, we use wave fixed effects in our analyses. The pooled GSS panel contains 242 non-citizens and 276 naturalized immigrants. The pooled CES panel contains only 181 non-citizens, and 955 naturalized immigrants.

These panels are limited. All panels have small sample sizes compared to our meta-analysis (LINES 2012, $N = 420$; LINES 2016, $N = 702$; GSS, $N = 518$; CES, $N = 1136$, but only 181 non-citizens). Therefore, panel tests of the naturalization-sorting link are less statistically powered, which could produce variable estimates inconsistent with well-powered cross-sectional estimates that are not due to estimation differences (Arel-Bundock et al., 2026). Furthermore, the LINES only surveys Latinos, and the small GSS and CES samples do not permit reasonable tests of ethno-racial heterogeneity. Moreover, the LINES 2012 panel does not measure the traditional partisanship scale in T1 and T2, only T1. Thus, we use a partisanship proxy

Table E6: Partisanship is statistically significantly associated with ideology over time among citizens but not non-citizens (LINES 2012 Panel)

	Obama-Romney FT (T2) (1)	Obama-Romney FT (T2) (2)	Ideology (T2) (3)	Ideology (T2) (4)	Ideology (T2) (5)	Ideology (T2) (6)
Ideology (T1)	-0.03 (0.06)	-0.00 (0.09)	0.38*** (0.08)	0.37*** (0.09)	0.37*** (0.08)	0.37*** (0.09)
Obama-Romney FT (T1)	0.49*** (0.07)	0.79*** (0.09)	0.00 (0.08)	0.14 [†] (0.08)		
Partisanship (T1)					0.09 (0.08)	0.17 [†] (0.09)
Controls (T1)?	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
Survey	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12
Sample	Latino Non-Citizen	Latino Citizen	Latino Non-Citizen	Latino Citizen	Latino Non-Citizen	Latino Citizen
R ²	0.32	0.60	0.27	0.38	0.28	0.38
N	249	171	249	171	249	171

*** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$. T1 corresponds to Wave 1 of the LINES 2012 panel (Oct. 10-Nov. 5, 2012) while T2 corresponds to Wave 2 (Nov. 7-Dec. 20, 2012) respondents. All models adjust for several T1 covariates: years in the U.S., Spanish language-of-interview, age, gender, national origin, marital status, income, college education, unemployed, homeowner, and political interest. All covariates standardized. HC2 robust SEs in parentheses.

Table E7: Ideology is more strongly associated with partisanship (and vice-versa) over time among immigrant citizens relative to non-citizens (LINES 2016 Panel)

	Partisanship (T2) (1)	Partisanship (T2) (2)	Ideology (T2) (3)	Ideology (T2) (4)
Ideology (T1)	-0.00 (0.06)	0.17*** (0.05)	0.43*** (0.08)	0.56*** (0.05)
Partisanship (T1)	0.49*** (0.09)	0.73*** (0.04)	0.10 (0.07)	0.15** (0.05)
Controls (T1)?	Y	Y	Y	Y
Survey	LINES '16	LINES '16	LINES '16	LINES '16
Sample	Latino Non-Citizen	Latino Citizen	Latino Non-Citizen	Latino Citizen
R ²	0.31	0.66	0.37	0.44
N	291	411	291	411

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$. To maximize sample size, T1 is Wave 1 of the LINES 2016 panel (Summer 2016) while T2 corresponds to Wave 2 (Nov. 2016-Jan. 2017) respondents in addition to Wave 3 (Jul.-Sep. 2017) respondents who were interviewed in Wave 1 but did not respond to Wave 2. All models adjust for several T1 covariates: years in the U.S., Spanish language-of-interview, age, gender, national origin, marital status, income, college education, unemployed, homeowner, perceived discrimination, experienced discrimination, political interest, and a political participation index. All covariates standardized. HC2 robust SEs in parentheses.

measured in T1 and T2 (Obama feeling thermometer subtracted from Romney thermometer) to assess if ideology is associated with partisan preferences over time.

We find some evidence of bidirectional sorting (ideology $\rightarrow$ partisanship; partisanship $\rightarrow$ ideology) over time among naturalized immigrants relative to non-citizens across the panels using a cross-lagged analysis.³⁴ In the LINES 2012 panel, ideology (T1) is not associated with a partisanship proxy (T2) conditional on the proxy in T1 for both non-citizens and naturalized immigrants (Table E6, Models 1-2). Conversely, both the partisanship proxy and the traditional partisanship scale (T1) are significantly associated with ideology (standardized coefficients of 0.14 and 0.17, $p < 0.10$) in T2 conditional on T1 ideology for naturalized

³⁴In our cross-lagged models, we adjust for several covariates across surveys depending on availability. These include some permutation of: years-in-the-US, Spanish dominance, age, gender, national origin, marital status, income, college education, unemployed, homeowner, perceived discrimination, experienced discrimination, political interest, and a non-electoral political participation index. For the CES and GSS panels, we adjust for wave fixed effects since we stack multiple panels to construct a harmonized two-period panel with sufficient N to assess the naturalization-sorting link among immigrants.

Table E8: Partisanship is associated with ideology over time among citizens but not non-citizens (GSS Panel)

	Partisanship (T2) (1)	Partisanship (T2) (2)	Ideology (T2) (3)	Ideology (T2) (4)
Ideology (T1)	0.02 (0.03)	0.03 (0.04)	0.09* (0.04)	0.18*** (0.04)
Partisanship (T1)	0.61*** (0.12)	0.76*** (0.06)	0.07 (0.08)	0.21** (0.07)
Controls?	Y	Y	Y	Y
Wave FE?	Y	Y	Y	Y
Survey	GSS	GSS	GSS	GSS
Sample	Non-Citizen	Citizen	Non-Citizen	Citizen
R ²	0.73	0.83	0.76	0.75
N	242	276	238	271

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$. Data here pools three three-wave GSS panels starting in 2006, 2008, and 2010 (2-year intervals between waves) in addition to a two-wave 2016-2020 GSS panel. Data is subsetting to immigrants. To maximize N , T1 is the first wave of the four GSS panels, T2 is the second wave of the four GSS panels (attrition is highest between the first and third waves in the GSS panels starting in 2006, 2008, and 2010). All models adjust for several T1 covariates: age, gender, marital status, income, college education, unemployed plus wave fixed effects (2006-2008, 2008-2010, 2010-2012, 2016-2020) to account for cross-wave ideology-partisanship correlation variation. All covariates standardized. HC2 robust SEs in parentheses.

citizens, *but not non-citizens* (Models 3-6).³⁵ In the LINES 2016 panel, ideology (T1) is not associated with partisanship (T2) adjusting for T1 partisanship among non-citizens (standardized coefficient: 0), but is associated with T2 partisanship among naturalized immigrants (0.17, $p < 0.001$, see Table E7, Models 1-2). The difference in coefficients across citizenship status is statistically significant ($p < 0.05$). Likewise, partisanship (T1) is not significantly associated with ideology (T2) adjusting for T1 ideology among non-citizens (0.10), but is significantly associated with T2 ideology among naturalized immigrants (Models 3-4, 0.15).³⁶ In the GSS panel, T1 ideology is not statistically significantly associated with T2 partisanship conditional on T1 partisanship for both non-citizens or citizens (Table E8, Models 1-2). But, consistent with perspectives predicting a naturalization-sorting link, T1 partisanship is significantly associated with T2 ideology for citizens conditional on T1 ideology (0.26, $p < 0.01$), but not non-citizens (0.09, $p = 0.39$).³⁷

The CES is an exception. Inconsistent with the notion that sorting may be stronger among naturalized immigrants than non-citizens, T1 ideology is significantly associated with T2 partisanship conditional on T1 partisanship (0.14, $p < 0.05$) among non-citizens, but not citizens (0.04, $p = 0.36$). Additionally, T1 partisanship is significantly associated with T2 ideology conditional on T1 ideology for both non-citizens and naturalized immigrants (0.22, $p < 0.01$; 0.16, $p < 0.01$). Thus, there is at least evidence of sorting over time for both non-citizen and naturalized immigrants in the CES (Table E9). We speculate on three plausible reasons why the CES panel evidence is different from the LINES and GSS evidence. First, ideology-partisanship associations for non-citizens in the CES are relatively underpowered, which could produce more variable estimates that are inconsistent with the population estimand. The non-citizen CES N is smaller than the other panels by 34-61%. Second, the CES is an online survey whereas the LINES and GSS are telephone and face-to-face surveys. Therefore, the CES may overrepresent well-accultured non-citizens that are inclined to sort over time despite their legal status and well-accultured naturalized immigrants that are already highly sorted and thus less likely to sort over time (Kalmoe, 2020). Third, the CES may overrepresent well-accultured non-citizens that are inclined to sort over time and well-accultured naturalized immigrants that are already highly sorted by virtue of being an English-only survey, whereas the LINES is bilingual and

³⁵The association between partisanship (T1) and ideology (T2) in the LINES 2012 is 89-3900% stronger for citizens than non-citizens, but the difference in associations is not significant ($p = 0.22-0.53$) due to small N .

³⁶Yet, the difference in associations here is not significant ($p = 0.29$). Again, keep in mind the panel data are low-powered, but given their relative congruence with the highly-powered cross-sectional estimates, we may expect statistically significant differences in panel associations with more statistical power.

³⁷The association here is not statistically different between citizens and non-citizens ($p = .19$), again, perhaps due to low N .

Table E9: Sorting occurs among both non-citizens and citizens in the CES Panel

	Partisanship (T2) (1)	Partisanship (T2) (2)	Ideology (T2) (3)	Ideology (T2) (4)
Ideology (T1)	0.14* (0.07)	0.04 (0.04)	0.70*** (0.08)	0.68*** (0.07)
Partisanship (T1)	0.51** (0.15)	0.90*** (0.04)	0.22** (0.08)	0.16** (0.06)
Controls (T1)?	Y	Y	Y	Y
Wave FE?	Y	Y	Y	Y
Survey	CES	CES	CES	CES
Sample	Non-Citizen	Citizen	Non-Citizen	Citizen
R ²	0.59	0.84	0.73	0.70
Num. obs.	181	955	181	955

*** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$. Data here pools two two-year interval CES panels in 2010-2014 and 2020-2022. Data is subsetting to immigrants. T1 is the first wave of the two CES panels, T2 is the last wave of the two CES panels (there is almost no attrition in ideology and partisanship responses over the waves). All models adjust for several T1 covariates: age, gender, college education, unemployment, marital status, income, homeownership, political interest plus wave fixed effects (2010-2014, 2020-2022). All covariates standardized. HC2 robust SEs in parentheses.

the GSS offers a Spanish-interview option. Indeed, the Pearson’s ρ correlation coefficient between ideology and partisanship is 0.11, 0.02, 0.10, 0.56 in T1 among non-citizens and 0.20 0.23, 0.19, 0.66 among naturalized immigrants in the LINES 2012, LINES 2016, GSS, and CES respectively. Thus, baseline sorting in the CES is 409-2700% and 187-247% higher for non-citizens and naturalized immigrants compared to the other surveys. In other words, evidence on the naturalization-sorting link should be viewed skeptically in the CES panel since it is a lower-powered, likely unrepresentative immigrant sample that is uncharacteristic of the low baseline sorting levels we have identified in other immigrant surveys. In summary, we believe the balance of evidence across the four panels is congruent with theoretical perspectives suggesting the existence of a naturalization-sorting link.

F Additional extensions and robustness checks

The Naturalization-Sorting Link and Partisanship: Is the naturalization-sorting link associated with partisanship? A core perspective on partisan identity formation is the Michigan School, which emphasizes early-life socialization and partisan stability (Jennings et al., 2009; Green et al., 2004). However, other research suggests partisanship develops later in life as immigrants integrate via naturalization (Wong, 2000; Hajnal and Lee, 2011).

Across all immigrants, naturalization is associated with lower (higher) Democratic identification among conservatives (liberals), producing no net partisan change. However, ethno-racial disaggregation reveals heterogeneity. Naturalization is associated with net Democratic identification for Latino and Black, but not Asian, immigrants. Among whites, naturalization is associated with declines in net Democratic identity, driven primarily by conservative (and, to a lesser extent, moderate and liberal) naturalized immigrants sorting into the Republican party (see Section F.1 for net partisanship estimation details and Figure F8).

These heterogeneous patterns fit prior work on immigrant partisanship. While naturalization among non-white immigrants is associated with conservatism and assimilation to Anglo white norms (Roman, 2023), discrimination and group-based pressures may limit Republican sorting among Black and Latino immigrants (Smith, 2014; White and Laird, 2020; Roman, 2023). The null estimate among Asian immigrants aligns with evidence that Asian partisanship is comparatively malleable—partly due to more heterogeneous social contexts (Raychaudhuri, 2020). The null naturalization-partisanship association for Asian immigrants but positive association for Latino immigrants also aligns with Cain et al. (1991), who find generational status is not associated with a particular partisan orientation among Asians, but is associated with Latino Democratic identity. Finally, the Republican shift among white immigrants may reflect greater exposure to Republican-leaning white networks.³⁸

³⁸In our CES data, White immigrants live in zipcodes that voted for Clinton in 2016 at a rate of 53% on

Within-Group Heterogeneity: Our ethno-racial heterogeneity analyses do not address within-group variation. Statistical power and limited cross-survey national origin measurement do not allow us to analyze intra-Black or white immigrant heterogeneity (Arel-Bundock et al., 2026), but we have enough data to assess if the naturalization-sorting link is heterogeneous by national origin for Latinos (Mexicans, Caribbeans, Central Americans, South Americans) and Asians (Chinese, Indian, Filipino, Vietnamese, Korean, Other).

For Latinos and Asians, the naturalization-sorting link is statistically uniform by origin (Figure F9). The exception is that the link is stronger among Caribbeans relative to Mexicans according to a coefficient difference test ($p < 0.05$). Further exploration shows that the strong naturalization-sorting link among Caribbeans is driven by Cubans. This heterogeneous naturalization-sorting link is theoretically reasonable. Cubans are relatively integrated. Their refugee status generated strong motives to integrate, the Federal government provided them easier access to legal status and economic resources, and many (but not all) are perceived as and self-described as racially white (Eckstein, 2009). Conversely, Mexican immigrants are economic migrants with weaker motives to integrate and prior research has documented the persistent socio-economic disadvantages and discrimination Mexican-Americans face, undercutting prospects for assimilation even with citizenship (Telles and Ortiz, 2009). These results underscore the importance of further theory and evidence on intra-group differences in the relationship between naturalization and political assimilation.

Sorting Over Time: We assess immigrant sorting over 36 years (Figure F10). Consistent with the broader electorate (Levendusky, 2009), Latino and Asian immigrants increasingly sort over time and the naturalization-sorting gap widens. In contrast, Black naturalized immigrants are consistently weakly sorted while Black non-citizens go from even more weakly sorted to convergent with their naturalized co-racials. White non-citizens are consistently highly sorted, while white naturalized immigrants become less sorted over time such that the naturalization-sorting gap closes. Again, the limited naturalization-sorting link among Black immigrants may be due to low political knowledge, group consciousness, or co-racial social pressure (Philpot, 2017; Jefferson, 2024; White and Laird, 2020). Conversely, the declining white naturalization-sorting link may be due to all ideological subgroups becoming Republican as they naturalize (Figure F8, Panel E), flattening the ideology-partisanship association.

Contextual Heterogeneity: We leverage the CES—our only large survey with geographic identifiers—to examine how three contextual variables (the share of co-ethnics, co-partisans, and non-citizens in one’s zipcode) correlate with partisan-ideological sorting (Figure F14). Two patterns stand out. First, across contexts and groups, naturalized immigrants remain more sorted than non-citizens (with the exception of Black immigrants), indicating the citizenship gap is not confined to particular local environments. Second, the strongest gradient is for *co-partisan density*: higher local co-partisan share is associated with *lower* sorting for both citizens and non-citizens—especially among Latino and Asian immigrants—consistent with cue-rich environments weakening the marginal link between ideology and partisanship. Co-ethnic density shows weaker, group-specific associations (roughly flat to slightly negative for Latinos, modestly positive for white immigrants, more strongly negative for Black immigrants), while higher local non-citizen share is modestly associated with lower sorting among citizens and slightly higher sorting among non-citizens (notably Black immigrants). Overall, local partisan composition is the most salient contextual correlate of sorting, while the citizenship advantage persists across local conditions.

Alternative Partisanship Measurement: Our results replicate when we replace partisanship with politician and party evaluations as the outcome (Figure F15). Across surveys, ideology is more strongly associated with politician favorability, politician approval, presidential candidate preference, and party ratings among naturalized immigrants than among non-citizens. The difference in associations is significant ($p < 0.001$). These results imply that the naturalization-sorting link generalizes beyond party identification to adjacent outcomes.

Alternative Ideology Measurement: We also replicate our core result using available policy liberalism indices across surveys (Figure F16). We find policy liberalism is more associated with partisanship among citizens than non-citizens ($p < 0.10$).³⁹ This robustness check is important, since prior evidence suggests

average; Non-White immigrants live in zipcodes that voted for Clinton at a rate of 63% on average.

³⁹The weak statistical significance is due to the inclusion of the CES data, where correlations between liberalism and partisanship are much higher than all other immigrant survey data, inducing larger standard errors in the random effects meta-analytic liberalism-partisanship correlations across citizenship status. Removing the CES data would result in a p-value less than 0.05

traditional ideology scales may have weak construct validity among non-whites and immigrants since they are less aware of what ideological labels mean (Jefferson, 2024; Enders and Thornton, 2023). Policy liberalism indices may have better construct validity than the single-item ideological self-placement scale since they capture explicit positions on various issues (Ansolabehere et al., 2008).

Sensitivity Analyses: Sensitivity analyses show that to attenuate the naturalization-sorting association to 0 across surveys where political interest and knowledge measures exist, an omitted covariate would have to be as large as 35x the interaction between ideology and political interest or 4x the interaction between ideology and political knowledge (Cinelli and Hazlett, 2020) (Section F.2). Given political interest and knowledge are highly prognostic of sorting, particularly for non-whites (Jefferson, 2024), we believe the risk of omitted variables fundamentally attenuating the naturalization-sorting association to 0 is low.

Mechanism Tests: We perform mediation analyses to descriptively explore several possible mechanisms that may explain the naturalization-sorting link, both as a function of possible selection and post-naturalization consequences, based on our theoretical insights (see Section F.12 for details and limitations to the mediation approach). Most tested mechanisms (political interest, income, education, English proficiency, education) barely explain variation in the naturalization-sorting link ($< 10\%$). However, registration and political knowledge explain 29% and 44% of the variation in the link. These findings accord with prior research informing our theoretical insights that identifies strong associations between political knowledge, registration (or registration intention), sorting, and political engagement (Pantoja and Segura, 2003; DeSipio, 2011; Hainmueller et al., 2015; Jefferson, 2024). However, statistically, political knowledge and registration do not wholly explain variation in the naturalization-sorting link, implying future research should do more to identify, both in terms of selection and post-naturalization consequences, *why* the naturalization-sorting link exists.

Social Sorting: Prior research suggests partisan strength is a function of belonging to socio-demographic groups associated with the two parties (Mason, 2018; Mason and Wronski, 2018). This is understood as *social sorting*. Other research posits that social sorting is confounded by *ideological sorting*, and that partisan-ideological sorting is the primary driver of partisan strength and affective polarization (Konicki, 2025). We meta-analytically evaluate if naturalization is associated with *both* social and ideological sorting by including an interaction in our base model between naturalization and a measure of partisan-social alignment generated for each respondent based on how strongly their demographics predict their partisanship (see Appendix F.13 for details). Consistent with Konicki (2025), we find: 1) naturalization is associated with both ideological sorting *and* social sorting and 2) ideology is associated with partisanship more strongly than social alignment for naturalized immigrants (Figure F18). The naturalization-sorting link appears both ideological and social.

Legal Status Without Naturalization: We assess if legal status short of naturalization generates stronger partisan-ideological sorting in the LINES 2012 and 2016 surveys since they explicitly measure a) legal permanent residency (green card) acquisition and b) legal status short of naturalization (documentation, e.g. green card, visa). In the cross-sectional 2012 LINES, non-citizens with or without green cards and naturalized immigrants are equally sorted (Figure F19, Panel A). However, in the cross-sectional 2016 LINES, the association between partisanship and ideology is 0 for non-citizens irrespective of documentation while the partisan-ideology slope is positive and statistically significant for naturalized immigrants (standardized coefficient: 0.29) (Figure F19, Panel B). We also replicate our inquiry into the association between legal status short of naturalization and partisan-ideological sorting with the LINES 2012 and 2016 panel data. In the LINES 2012 panel, T1 ideology is not associated with the T2 partisanship proxy adjusting for the T1 partisanship proxy for non-citizens without a green card, non-citizens with a green card, and naturalized immigrants. However, naturalized immigrants are the only subgroup where either the T1 partisanship proxy or T1 traditional partisanship scale are significantly associated with T2 ideology adjusting for T1 ideology (Table F14). Likewise, in the LINES 2016 panel, T1 ideology is significantly associated with T2 partisanship adjusting for T1 partisanship only for naturalized immigrants, not documented or undocumented non-citizens. Conversely, T1 partisanship is only significantly associated with T2 ideology adjusting for T1 ideology among naturalized immigrants, not non-citizens, documented or undocumented (Table F15). In sum, the balance of evidence across the different LINES estimates suggests non-citizens with legal status do not appear more sorted than non-citizens without legal status. Naturalized immigrants are more sorted than both non-citizens with or without legal status short of naturalization.

F.1 The naturalization-sorting link and aggregate partisanship

We use the 27 surveys to meta-analytically calculate covariate-adjusted Democratic party identification for 6 groups across all immigrant surveys and each ethno-racial group: 1) non-citizen conservatives; 2) non-citizen moderates; 3) non-citizen liberals; 4) citizen conservatives; 5) citizen moderates; and 6) citizen liberals. We then take the difference between citizen and non-citizen Democratic identification for each ideological subgroup, weighted by ideological group size, and measure these quantities for all immigrants and each ethno-racial subgroup. We sum these quantities for all immigrants and each ethno-racial subgroup to acquire the overall increase in net Democratic identification associated with naturalization. Here, partisanship and ideology are scaled between 0-1.

To calculate the association between naturalization and net Democratic identification for ideological subgroups, we need to account for (1) Democratic identification among each ideological and naturalization subgroup and (2) compositional shifts in the proportion of ideological subgroups associated with naturalization. Thus, we first meta-analytically estimated the following 6 quantities using all immigrant survey data and immigrant survey data from each ethno-racial subgroup (Latino, Asian, Black, white). These 6 quantities are predicted values from fully-specified regression models: (1) $E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Conservative}_i, \text{Non-Citizen}_i]$, (2) $E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Moderate}_i, \text{Non-Citizen}_i]$, (3) $E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Liberal}_i, \text{Non-Citizen}_i]$, (4) $E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Conservative}_i, \text{Citizen}_i]$, (5) $E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Moderate}_i, \text{Citizen}_i]$, (6) $E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Liberal}_i, \text{Citizen}_i]$.

DemID_i is the value of Democratic identification for respondent i , rescaled from 0-1 based on the partisanship scales across all surveys. Higher (lower) values means stronger identification with the Democratic (Republican) party. In this exercise, we do not use the five-fold measure of ideology. Instead, we bin ideologues into three groups to maintain consistency in ideology measurement across the surveys in the meta-analysis. The three groups are *conservative*, *moderate*, and *liberal* (Therefore, strong liberals (or conservatives) and weak liberals (or conservatives) would be grouped into a single liberal (or conservative) category). *Citizen* corresponds to naturalized immigrants, *non-citizen* corresponds to unnaturalized immigrants. See Figure F6 for the predicted values that characterize the quantities on equations (1)-(6) for all immigrants and each ethno-racial subgroup.

We then calculated the meta-analytic proportions of each ideological subgroup conditional on naturalization status using all immigrant survey data and immigrant survey data from each ethno-racial subgroup: (7) $Pr(\text{Conservative}_i | \text{Non-Citizen}_i)$, (8) $Pr(\text{Moderate}_i | \text{Non-Citizen}_i)$, (9) $Pr(\text{Liberal}_i | \text{Non-Citizen}_i)$, (10) $Pr(\text{Conservative}_i | \text{Citizen}_i)$, (11) $Pr(\text{Moderate}_i | \text{Citizen}_i)$, (12) $Pr(\text{Liberal}_i | \text{Citizen}_i)$. See Figure F7 for the meta-analytic proportions of the ideological subgroups conditional on naturalization for all immigrants and each ethno-racial subgroup characterized by equations (7)-(12).

For all immigrant survey data, and for all immigrant survey data on each particular ethno-racial group, we then estimate the following quantities and their standard errors using 1000 bootstrap replicates:

$$(13) \quad E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Conservative}_i, \text{Citizen}_i] Pr(\text{Conservative}_i | \text{Citizen}_i) \\ - E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Conservative}_i, \text{Non-Citizen}_i] Pr(\text{Conservative}_i | \text{Non-Citizen}_i)$$

$$(14) \quad E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Moderate}_i, \text{Citizen}_i] Pr(\text{Moderate}_i | \text{Citizen}_i) \\ - E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Moderate}_i, \text{Non-Citizen}_i] Pr(\text{Moderate}_i | \text{Non-Citizen}_i)$$

$$(15) \quad E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Liberal}_i, \text{Citizen}_i] Pr(\text{Liberal}_i | \text{Citizen}_i) \\ - E[\text{DemID}_i | \text{Liberal}_i, \text{Non-Citizen}_i] Pr(\text{Liberal}_i | \text{Non-Citizen}_i)$$

The quantities in equations (13)-(15) correspond to the coefficients on each facet in Figure F8. In other words, they correspond to the marginal contribution of each ideological group to the overall change in Democratic identification upon naturalization, weighted by group size. The final “all” coefficient on each facet in Figure F8 is the sum of the coefficients characterized by equations (13)-(15) (SEs from 1000 bootstrap replicates). In layperson’s terms, the sum of equations (13)-(15) corresponds to the increase (or decrease) in Democratic identification associated with naturalization across all immigrants or all immigrants within a specific ethno-racial group.

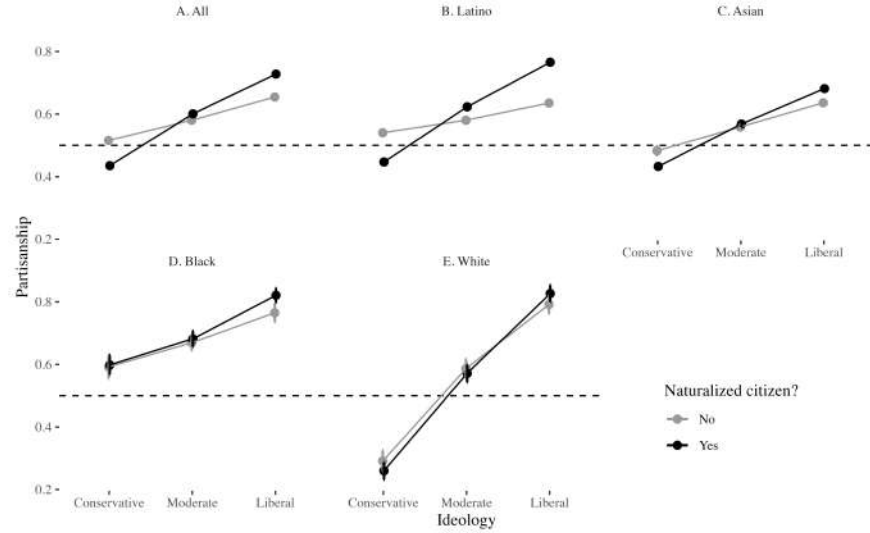


Figure F6: Meta-analytic predicted values of Democratic partisanship (y-axis) by ideological subgroup (x-axis) and citizenship status. Estimates from fully-specified models. Facets denote ethno-racial subgroups. 95% CIs from HC2 robust SEs displayed.

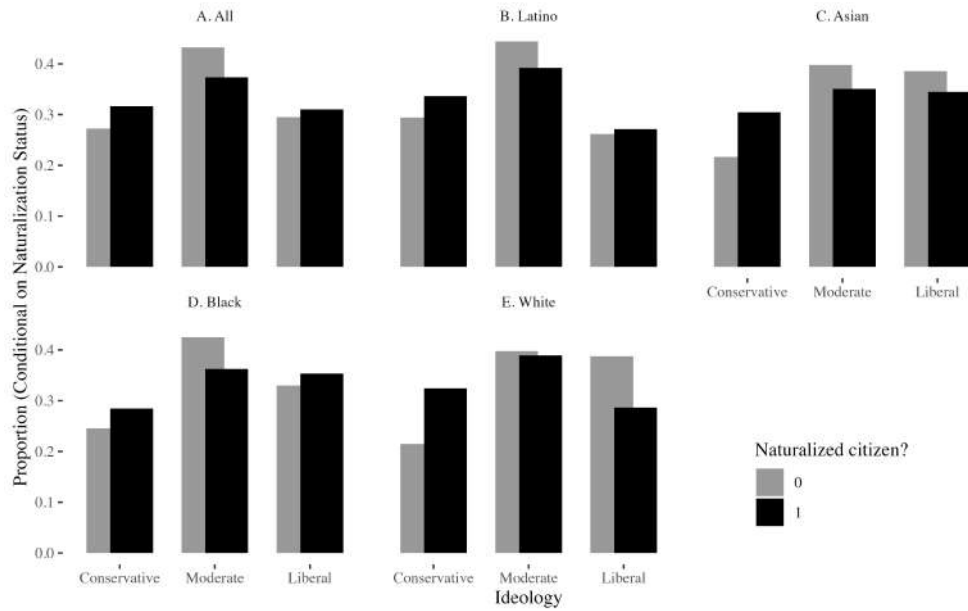


Figure F7: Meta-analytic proportion of immigrant population (y-axis) that is of a particular ideology. Estimates from fully-specified models. Facets denote ethno-racial subgroups. All covariates scaled between 0-1. 95% CIs from HC2 robust SEs displayed.

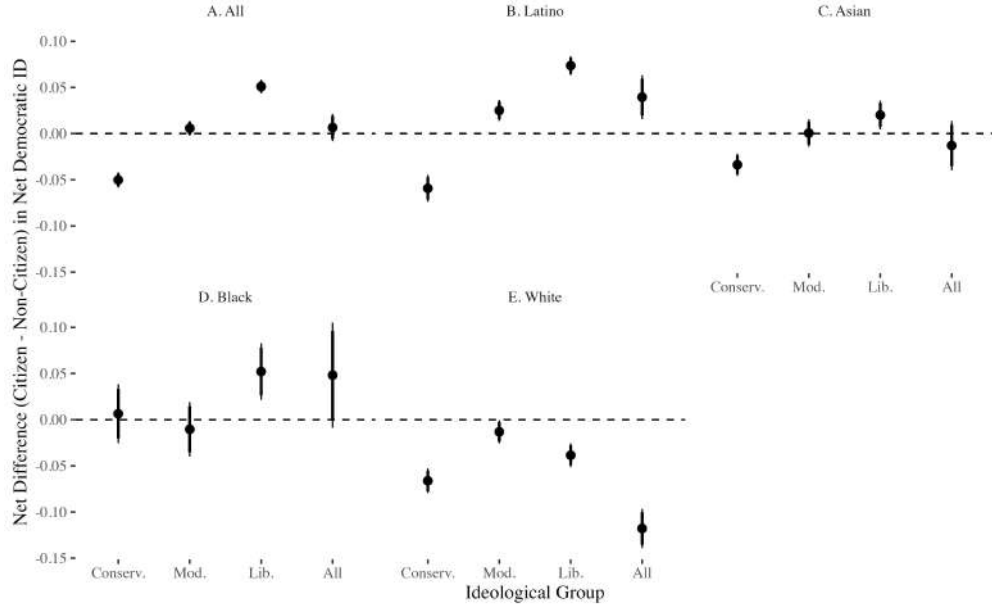


Figure F8: Meta-analytic net difference in Democratic partisan identification associated with naturalization. X-axis characterizes ideological group, y-axis characterizes the meta-analytic net difference in Democratic partisan identification associated with naturalization for each ideological group by ethno-racial group (facet title). 95% CIs from bootstrapped SEs (1000 replicates) displayed.

F.2 Sensitivity Analyses

Table F10: Sensitivity Analysis (Political Interest Bounding Covariate)

Survey	Bounding Covariate	% Outcome Explained	% IV Explained
LNPS 1989 (Latino)	11x Political Interest	0.08	0.10
LNS 2006 (Latino)	3x Political Interest	0.11	0.02
Pew 2010 (Latino)	63x Political Interest	0.17	0.08
RWJF 2015 (Latino)	5x Political Interest	0.40	0.05
CMPS 2016 (Latino)	5x Political Interest	0.20	0.07
LINES 2016 (Latino)	5x Political Interest	0.31	0.03
CMPS 2020 (Latino)	3x Political Interest	0.19	0.12
BSP 2021 (Latino)	9x Political Interest	0.40	0.05
CMPS 2024 (Latino)	15x Political Interest	0.53	0.07
CES 2006-25 (Latino)	6x Political Interest	0.16	0.04
NAAS 2008 (Asian)	8x Political Interest	0.07	0.05
CMPS 2016 (Asian)	351x Political Interest	0.27	0.08
CMPS 2020 (Asian)	26x Political Interest	0.06	0.08
CMPS 2024 (Asian)	45x Political Interest	0.85	0.00
CES 2006-25 (Asian)	15x Political Interest	0.27	0.02
CMPS 2020 (Black)	25x Political Interest	0.09	0.37
CMPS 2024 (Black)	26x Political Interest	0.11	0.12
CES 2006-25 (White)	5x Political Interest	0.07	0.02
Average	35x Political Interest	0.24	0.08

Note: Sensitivity analysis is isolated to studies where: 1) the ideology/citizenship interaction is positive and statistically significant; 2) there is a political interest measure within the study. We remove the PNAAS 2000 (Asian) and CES 2006-24 (Black) samples from the sensitivity analysis since the interaction between ideology and citizenship is not initially significant. To be clear, the ideology/citizenship interaction was not significant after adjusting for the interaction between ideology and political interest, so our sensitivity analysis displayed here is not under-estimating the confounding influence of political interest. Median for political interest bounding covariate is 10x political interest.

Table F11: Sensitivity Analysis (Political Knowledge Bounding Covariate)

Survey	Bounding Covariate	% Outcome Explained	% IV Explained
LNS 2006 (Latino)	3x Political Knowledge	0.05	0.05
BSP 2025 (Latino)	5x Political Knowledge	0.04	0.10
CES 2006-25 (Latino)	1x Political Knowledge	0.08	0.05
CES 2006-25 (Asian)	2x Political Knowledge	0.18	0.04
NPS 2004 (Black)	10x Political Knowledge	0.92	0.00
CES 2006-25 (White)	1x Political Knowledge	0.02	0.04
Average	4x Political Knowledge	0.21	0.05

Note: Sensitivity analysis is isolated to studies where: 1) the interaction between ideology and citizenship is positive and statistically significant; 2) there is a political knowledge measure within the study that would allow for the sensitivity analysis. We remove the NPS 2004 (Latino) and NPS 2004 (Asian) samples from the sensitivity analysis since the interaction between ideology and citizenship is not initially significant. To be clear, the ideology/citizenship interaction was not significant after adjusting for the interaction between ideology and political knowledge, so our sensitivity analysis displayed here is not under-estimating the confounding influence of political knowledge. Median for political knowledge bounding covariate is 2.5x political knowledge.

F.3 Within-Group heterogeneity

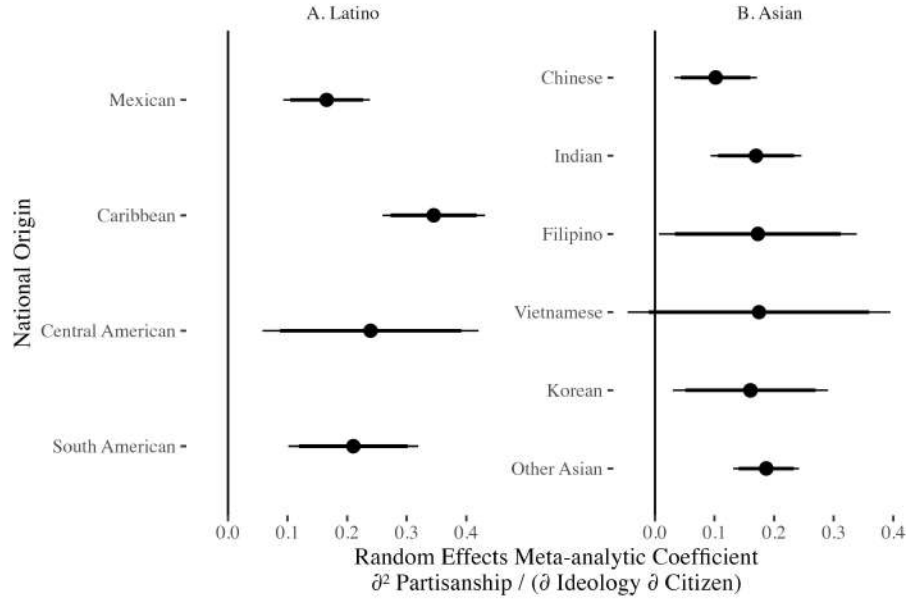


Figure F9: The naturalization-sorting link is largely uniform across Asian and Latino national origins.

Here we analyze all Latino and Asian surveys that include a consistent national-origin measure. The included Latino datasets are: KFF 1999, NPS 2004, LNS 2006, Pew 2010, LINES 2012, RWJF 2015, CMPS 2016, LINES 2016, Pew 2017, CMPS 2020, CMPS 2024, BSP 2021, CES 2015-2025, and BSP 2025. The included Asian datasets are: PNAAS 2000, NAAS 2008, CMPS 2016, CMPS 2020, CMPS 2024, CES 2015-2025. NPS 2004 is not included due to low statistical power for the Filipino category. We estimate the ideology→partisanship slope by citizenship and origin in our models with three-way interactions, with the same covariate set as in the baseline models. Formal coefficient difference tests show all within-group slopes are statistically indistinguishable from each other at conventional levels with the exception of the Mexican and Caribbean slopes. Caribbean = Cuban, Dominican; Central American = Costa Rican, Salvadoran, Guatemalan, Honduran, Nicaraguan, Panamanian; South American = Argentine, Bolivian, Chilean, Colombian, Ecuadorian, Paraguayan, Peruvian, Uruguayan, Venezuelans. For the Latino data, anyone who reports “other” national origin, “Spaniard,” or “Puerto Rican” (because of citizenship status) is excluded. Further statistical exploration shows the naturalization-sorting slope is 0.48 for Cubans, 0.06 for Dominicans. Thus the high naturalization-sorting relationship for Caribbeans is driven primarily by Cubans. We choose to analyze these origin groups for Latinos and Asians because they ensure sufficient within-origin statistical power and are demographically sensible. Mexicans are the largest Latino immigrant population (54%), with the next largest origin population being only 6% (Cubans). The non-“other” origins for Asians are the top-five largest Asian immigrant origin groups. See: <https://www.pewresearch.org/short-reads/2023/09/28/8-facts-about-recent-latino-immigrants-to-the-us/> and <https://www.pewresearch.org/short-reads/2025/05/01/key-facts-about-asians-in-the-us/>.

F.4 Sorting over time

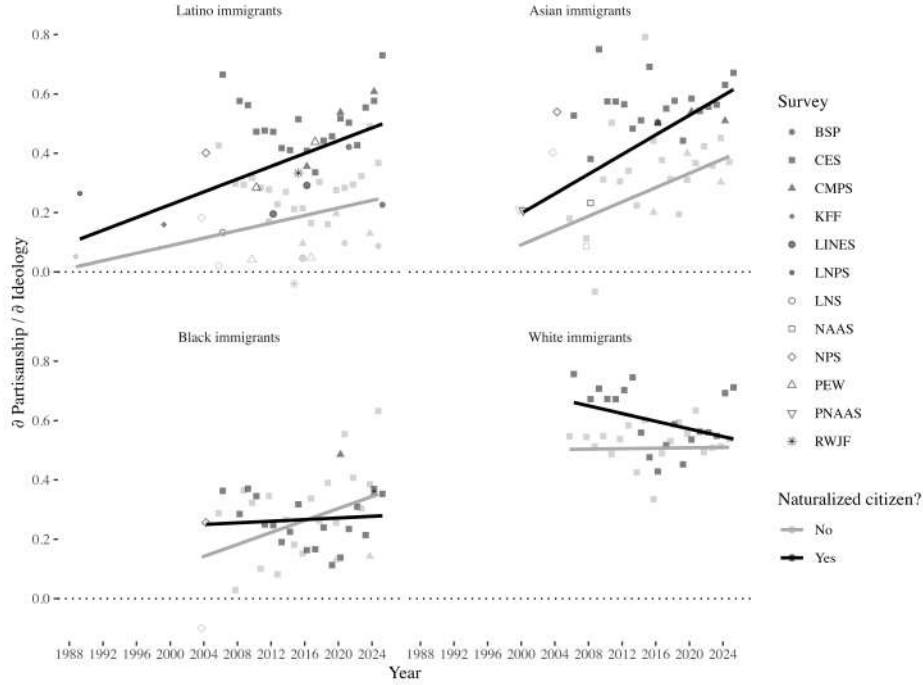


Figure F10: Sorting over time. Linear fits weighted by survey sample size.

F.5 Political Knowledge Measurement

There are 10 surveys where we can measure political knowledge: the 2004 NPS Latino immigrant sample, the 2004 NPS Black immigrant sample, the 2004 NPS Asian immigrant sample, the 2006 Latino National Survey, the CES White immigrant sample, the CES Asian immigrant sample, the CES Black immigrant sample, the CES Latino immigrant sample, the 2012 LINES survey, and the 2025 BSP survey.

Political knowledge is measured differently across the surveys. In the NPS, political knowledge is an additive index of three items measuring whether respondents can correctly identify the office that Dick Cheney, Colin Powell, and William Rehnquist hold, scaled from 0-3 (0 = none identified, 3 = all three correctly identified). In the LNS, political knowledge is measured with a question based on the response to the following question: “Which one of the political parties is more conservative than the other at the national level, the Democrats or the Republicans?” Respondents are deemed “knowledgeable” if they respond “Republicans” (binary indicator). In the BSP, political knowledge is measured in the same way as the LNS. Similarly, in the 2012 LINES survey, political knowledge is measured using four independent items that are combined in an additive index: 1) correctly placing Barack Obama’s position on health insurance as “government insurance plan” instead of “private insurance plan” on a 1-7 scale, 2) correctly placing Mitt Romney’s position on health insurance as “private insurance plan” instead of “government insurance plan” on a 1-7 scale, 3) correctly placing the Democratic Party’s position on health insurance as “government insurance plan” instead of “private insurance plan” on a 1-7 scale, 4) correctly placing the Republican party’s position on health insurance as “private insurance plan” instead of “government insurance plan” on a 1-7 scale. Since the index is on a 4-28 scale, we consider respondents politically knowledgeable in the 2012 LINES survey if they are above the median of the scale. Finally, in the CES, political knowledge is measured differently across waves according to item availability, but is at least constructed from an additive index of some permutation of the following 6 survey questions: 1) if the respondent can correctly identify who controls the House, 2) if the respondent can correctly identify who controls the Senate, 3) if the respondent can correctly identify the party of their state governor, 4) if the respondent can correctly identify the party of their house representative, 5)

if the respondent can correctly identify the party of their first Senate representative; 6) if the respondent can correctly identify the party of their second Senate representative.

Admittedly, there are shortcomings to how we measure political knowledge across the surveys. First, some of the knowledge measures are not directly measuring knowledge about the partisan-ideological structure of American politics (e.g. knowing that liberal = Democrat, conservative = Republican); instead, they measure civic knowledge (e.g. knowing the political office that Dick Cheney holds, knowing the party of your senator). However, preexisting research shows that civic knowledge is highly correlated with knowledge of partisan-ideological structure (Carpini and Keeter, 1996), so civic knowledge may be an appropriate next-best proxy for partisan-ideological knowledge. Second, unlike prior studies, to the extent that we can directly measure knowledge concerning ideological labels in some surveys (i.e. the LNS, BSP), we only have a single item to measure partisan-ideological knowledge whereas previous research uses multiple items to measure partisan-ideological knowledge in an index (Jefferson, 2024). Thus, in comparison to prior studies on political knowledge, the association between our knowledge measures and sorting may be attenuated due to measurement error and lower reliability. Therefore, we believe future research should implement surveys that measure sorting, naturalization status, and partisan-ideological knowledge in a multi-item, multi-dimensional manner in order to fully assess the naturalization-sorting association net of the knowledge-sorting association. At the very least, however, the LINES 2012 political knowledge measure is constructed from four independent questions asking respondents to place the ideological commitments of both candidates and the two parties.

The meta-analysis on the top-middle panel of Figure D5, which characterizes an interaction between ideology, naturalization, and political knowledge, excludes the 2004 Black sample because it is unidentified with the inclusion of all control covariates while analyzing the ideology, naturalization, and knowledge triple interaction. Therefore, we evaluate the ideology, naturalization, and knowledge triple interaction without controls in the 2004 NPS Black immigrant sample and identify evidence that the naturalization-sorting link identified within the 2004 NPS Black immigrant sample persists net of the knowledge-sorting link, but instead is isolated to those who are least politically knowledgeable (Figure F13). The meta-analysis on the top-middle panel of Figure D5 also excludes the 2012 LINES since there is no naturalization-sorting link identified in the 2012 LINES cross-sectional estimates for the knowledge-sorting link to potentially attenuate. However, the 2012 LINES panel estimates demonstrate evidence of partisans sorting into ideological commitments over time (Table E6), so we evaluate if T1 partisanship is associated with T2 ideology for four subgroups in the 2012 LINES panel: unknowledgeable non-citizens, knowledgeable non-citizens, unknowledgeable citizens, and knowledgeable citizens. Figure F12 shows T1 partisanship is only significantly associated with T2 ideology among knowledgeable citizens, suggesting the naturalization-sorting and knowledge-sorting link mutually reinforce each other, but one link does not dominate in predicting variation in sorting.

F.6 Telephone survey knowledge replication

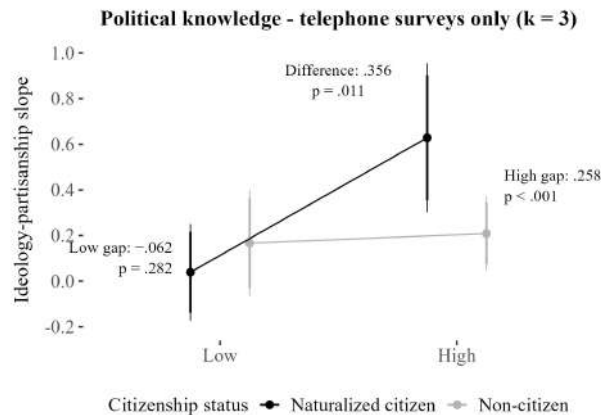


Figure F11: Naturalization is associated with sorting net of the knowledge-sorting association (telephone polls only). Polls included in these estimates are telephone only (non-online): NPS 2004 (Latino), NPS 2004 (Asian), LNS 2006. 95% CIs from HC2 SEs.

F.7 Probing knowledge with panel evidence

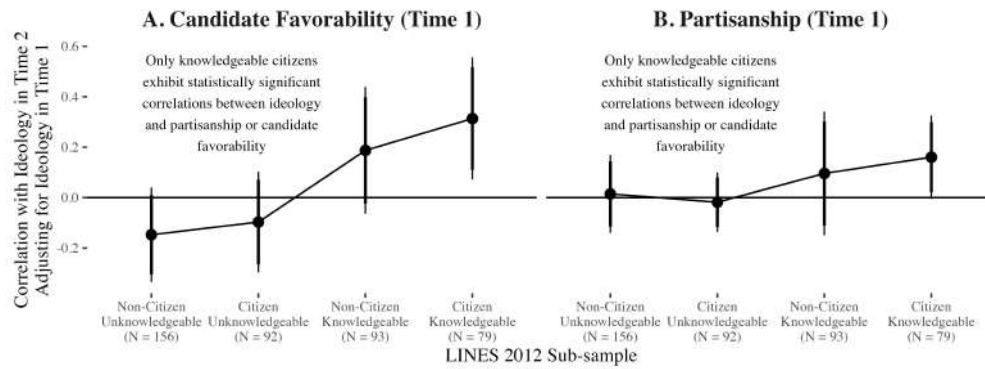


Figure F12: Evaluating T1 partisanship correlations with T2 ideology (y-axis) in 2012 LINES panel across knowledge/citizenship subgroups (x-axis). Facets denote partisanship measure at use (A = difference in Obama and Romney feeling thermometers, B = traditional sevenfold partisanship scale). 95% CIs from HC2 SEs displayed.

F.8 NPS 2004 Black Immigrant Knowledge Probing

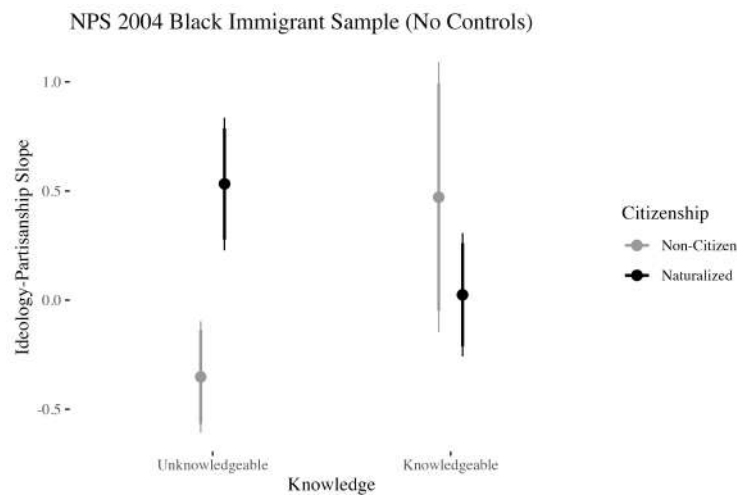


Figure F13: Naturalization is associated with sorting net of the knowledge-sorting association (2004 NPS Black immigrant sample only, no control covariates aside from triple interaction included). 95% CIs from HC2 SEs.

F.9 Contextual effects

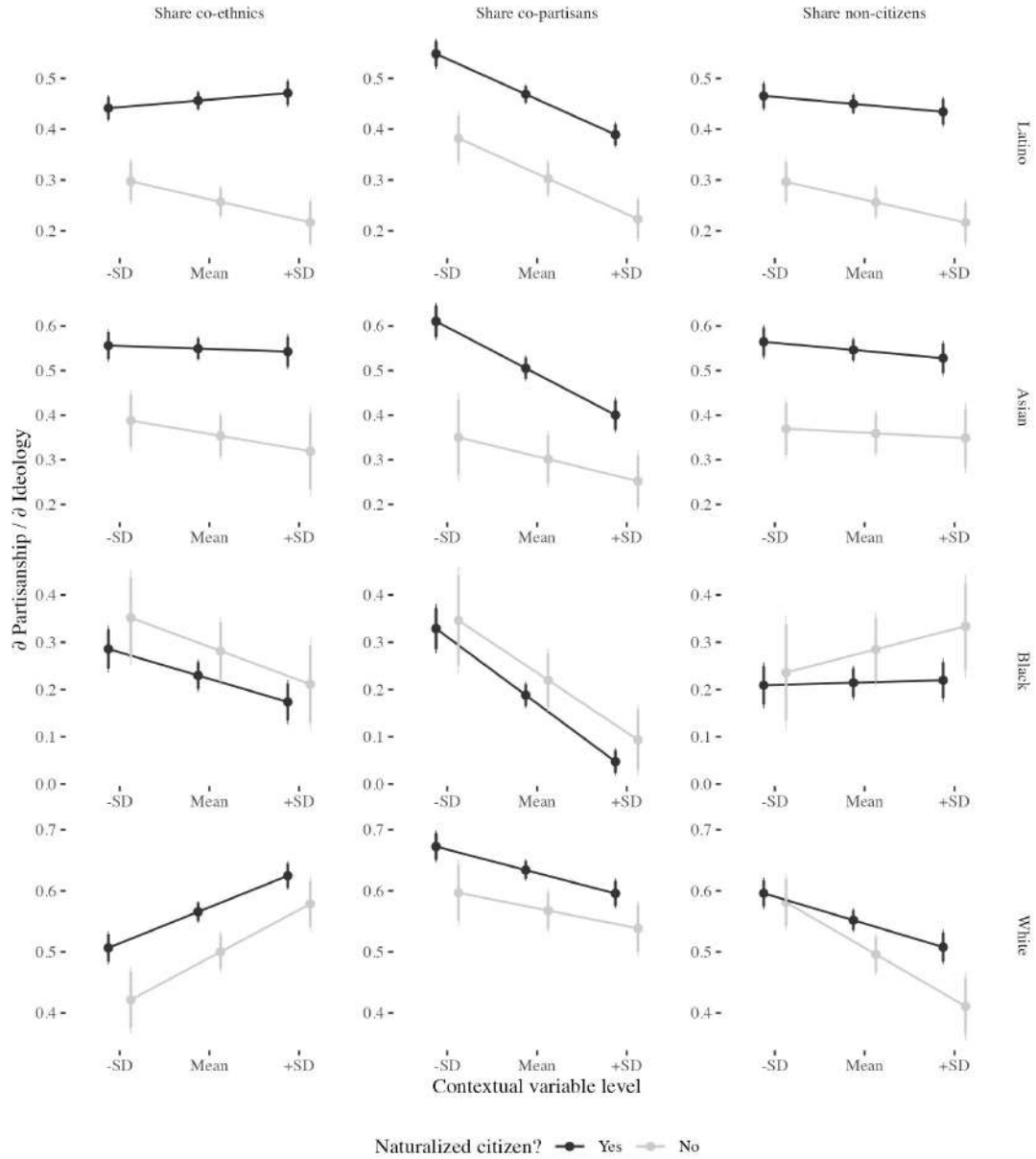


Figure F14: Context conditions for partisan-ideological sorting. Points plot the estimated partisan-ideological sorting for naturalized citizens (black) and non-citizens (gray) at three levels of a ZIP-code moderator: -1 SD, mean, and +1 SD. Columns correspond to moderators—share co-ethnics, share co-partisans, and share non-citizens—and rows to immigrant groups (Latino, Asian, Black, White). Estimates come from CES models with a three-way interaction (Ideology × Citizen × Moderator), including the CES baseline controls and year fixed effects, with survey weights and HC2 SEs. Bars are 95% CIs. We only use CES data up to 2024 since contextual ACS data has only been produced up to 2024.

F.10 Alternative partisanship measurement

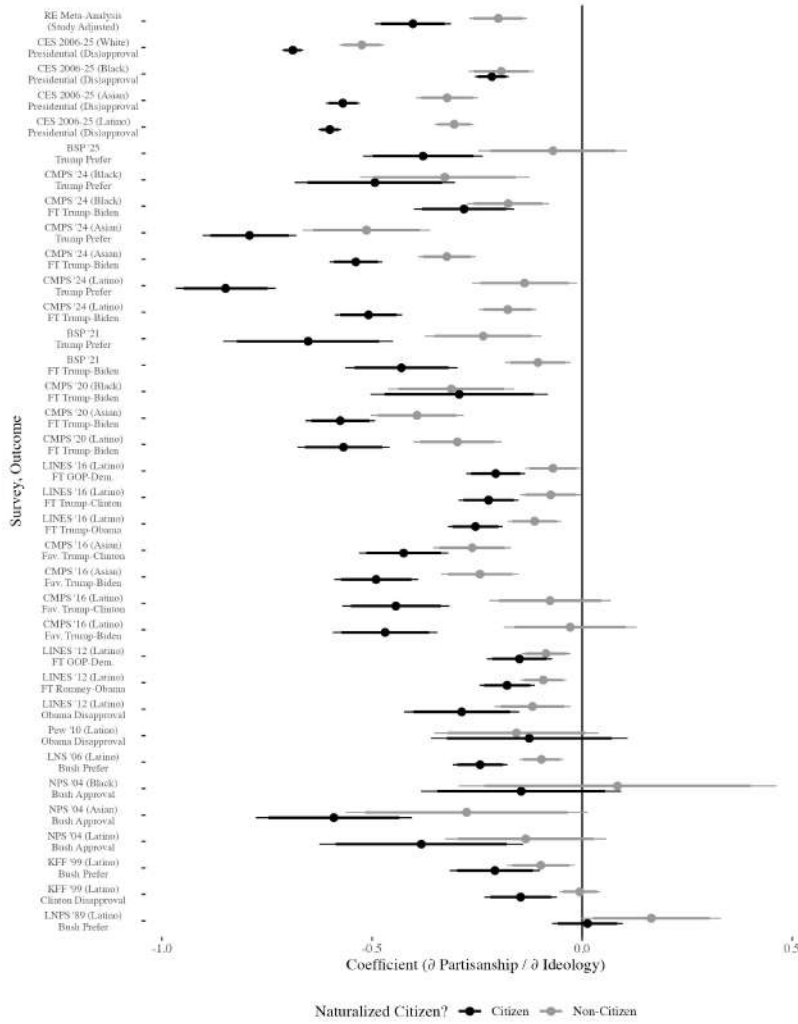


Figure F15: Ideology is more strongly associated with politician and party evaluations among immigrant citizens relative to non-citizens. All estimates from fully-specified models. All covariates scaled between 0-1. Outcomes are coded so they characterize support (opposition) toward Republican (Democratic) party politicians, thus, we expect negative associations since ideology is coded where the maximum is “strong liberal.” Random effects meta-analytic estimates are “study-adjusted,” meaning if there are multiple outcomes within a particular survey, the outcome-ideology associations by citizenship are averaged so that a single ideology coefficient for citizens and non-citizens is incorporated into the meta-analysis for each survey. This prevents artificial deflation of meta-analytic standard errors and mitigates Type I error. The RE meta-analytic coefficients characterizing the ideology-partisanship associations for citizens and non-citizens are statistically distinct from each other according to a formal coefficient difference test ($p < 0.001$). 95% CIs from HC2 robust SEs displayed.

F.11 Alternative ideology measurement

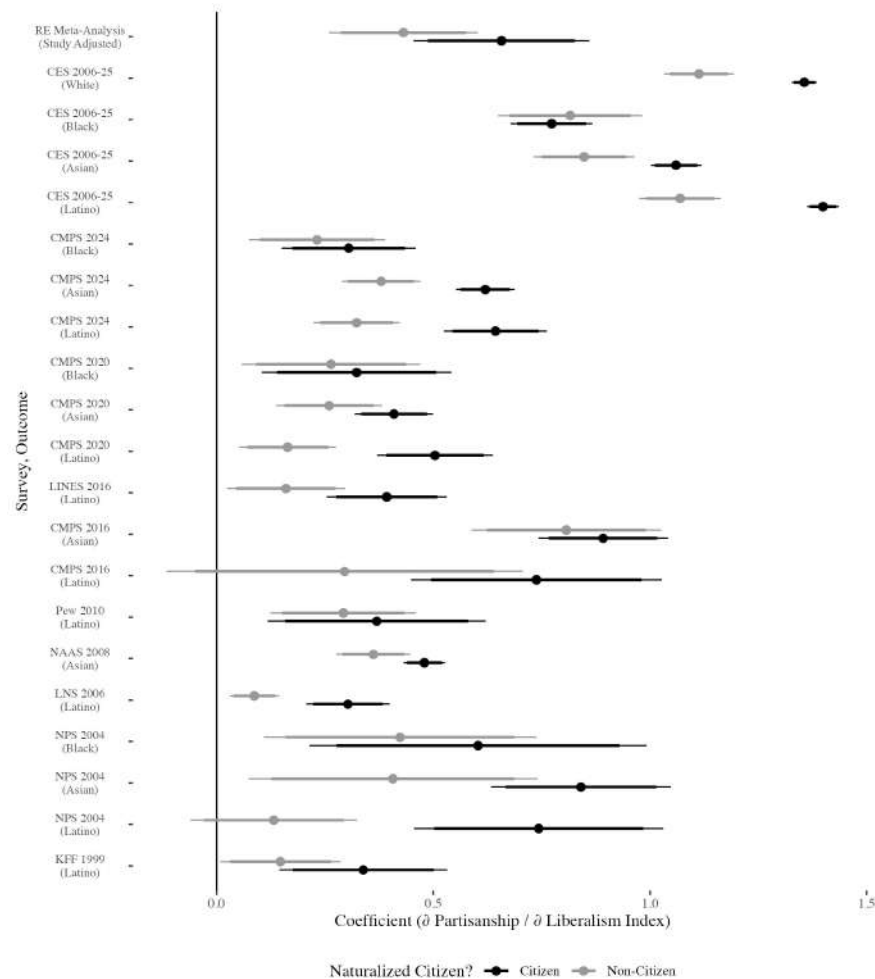


Figure F16: Policy liberalism is more strongly associated with partisanship among immigrant citizens relative to non-citizens. All estimates from fully-specified models. All covariates scaled between 0-1. Outcomes are coded so they characterize support (opposition) toward Republican (Democratic) party politicians, thus, we expect negative associations since ideology is coded where the maximum is “liberal on all policy positions” Random effects meta-analytic estimates are “study-adjusted,” meaning if there are multiple outcomes within a particular survey, the outcome-liberalism associations by citizenship are averaged so that a single liberalism coefficient for citizens and non-citizens is incorporated into the meta-analysis for each survey. This prevents artificial deflation of meta-analytic standard errors and mitigates Type I error. The RE meta-analytic coefficients characterizing the liberalism-partisanship associations for citizens and non-citizens are statistically distinct from each other according to a formal coefficient difference test ($p < 0.10$). 95% CIs from HC2 robust SEs displayed. See Table F12 for policy liberalism measurement details (components recoded so higher values = liberal position).

Table F12: Liberalism Index Measurement Across Surveys

Survey (Group)	Liberalism Index Components
KFF 1999 (Latino)	Support for not decreasing immigration, opposition to English-only teaching, opposition to increasing military spending, support for affirmative action, support for abortion, opposition to death penalty, support for government-run healthcare, support for gun control
NPS 2004 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Support for workplace affirmative action, opposition to death penalty, opposition to reducing immigration, opposition to Iraq War, support for same-sex marriage, support for public education spending, opposition to increasing defense spending, support for increasing social security spending, support for decreasing border enforcement, support for education affirmative action
LNS 2006 (Latino)	Support for government health care, support for in-state tuition for undocumented immigrants, support for reducing military intervention in Iraq, support for government intervention to help low-income people
NAAS 2008 (Asian)	Support for reducing military in Iraq, support for government health care, support for making abortion legal in all cases, support for a path to citizenship for undocumented
Pew 2010 (Latino)	Support for pathway to citizenship, opposition to SB 1070, support for not increasing deportations, disapproval of immigration raids, disapproval of increasing border patrol, disapproval of national identity card, support for immigrant in-state tuition, support for local police not engaging in immigration enforcement, support for birthright citizenship
CMPS 2016 (Latino, Asian)	Support for citizenship pathway for undocumented, opposition to gay marriage ban, support for government intervention against climate change, support for taxing rich, opposition to voter ID, support for Obamacare, opposition to death penalty, support for increasing education spending, support for decreasing police spending, support for reducing border security spending, support for increasing aid to the poor, support for healthcare spending
LINES 2016 (Latino)	Opposition to Muslim Ban, support for legalizing undocumented immigrants, support for abortion access, support for increasing health and education spending
CMPS 2020 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Disagree with border security, support for citizenship pathway, support for criminal justice reform, oppose policing Muslims, support for VRA, support for decreasing police, favor cutting police funding, favor abolishing police
CMPS 2024 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Oppose deportations, oppose Trump defying court orders, favor education affirmative action, favor workplace affirmative action, oppose removing books, oppose banning trans sports, support for abortion (2 items), support for Israel-Palestine ceasefire, oppose US-Israeli assistance
CES 2006–25 (Latino, Asian, Black, White)	<i>Abortion:</i> allow in all cases, allow only in rape/incest/life danger, ban after 20 weeks, make illegal in all circumstances, allow employers to decline coverage. <i>Environment:</i> EPA regulate CO ₂ , raise fuel economy standards, require renewables, prioritize environment over jobs. <i>Guns:</i> universal background checks, ban assault rifles, ease concealed-carry, stricter gun laws. <i>Health care:</i> repeal ACA, restore ACA mandate, Medicare for all, lower Medicare age. <i>Immigration:</i> legal status pathway, increase border patrols, local police check status, penalize employers, deny services, deport all undocumented, require reporting, reduce legal immigration, build border wall. <i>Spending:</i> education, health care, welfare, police, infrastructure, prefer cuts over taxes. <i>Trade:</i> tariffs on China, restrict Canada/Mexico trade, support free trade agreements. <i>Rights:</i> legalize/oppose gay marriage, support affirmative action. <i>Tax:</i> prefer income over sales tax.

F.12 Mechanism Assessment

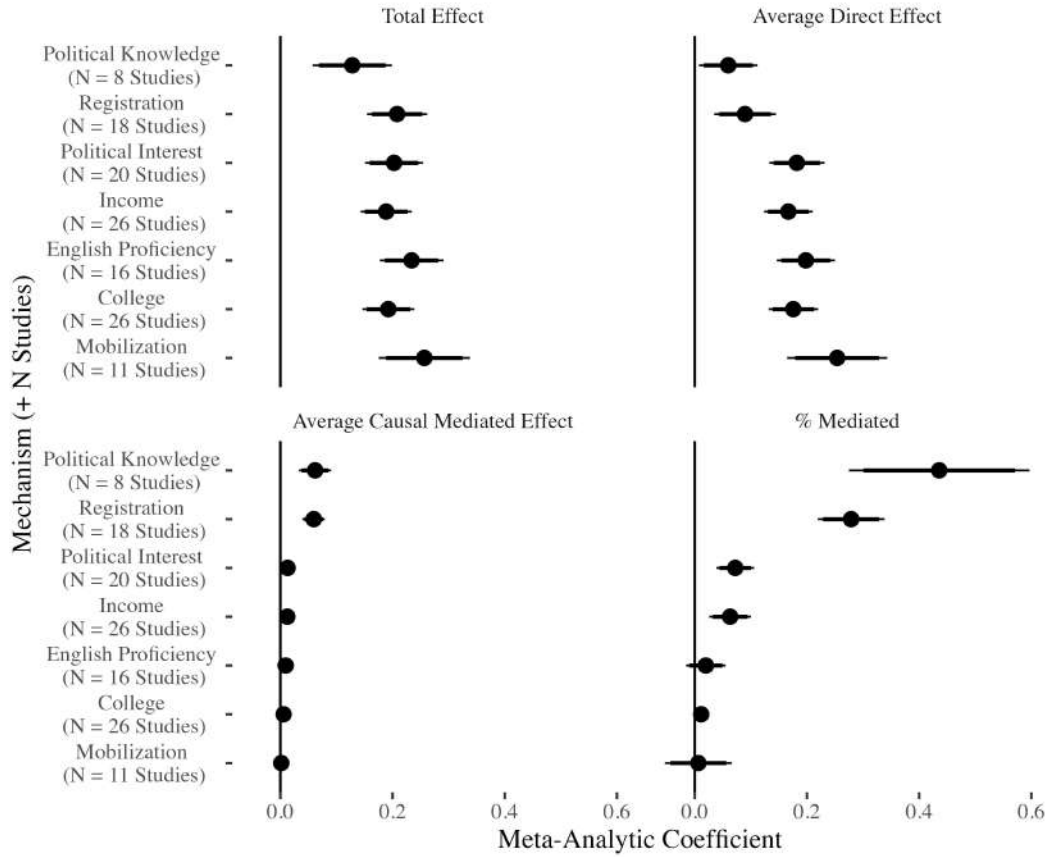


Figure F17: How various mechanisms (y-axis) are associated with variation in the naturalization-sorting link. The top-left panel characterizes the total association between naturalization and sorting (x-axis). The top-right panel characterizes the total direct association between naturalization and sorting (x-axis, net of a specified mediator). The bottom-left panel characterizes the mediated association between naturalization, a mediator, and sorting. The bottom-right panel characterizes the proportion of the naturalization-sorting link that is explained by a mediator. Number of studies where the mediation analysis could be implemented in parentheses on the x-axis. We use the `mediation` R package to implement these analyses (Tingley et al., 2014). The first stage is the baseline model but predicting the mediator/ideology interaction. The second stage is the same model but predicts partisanship adjusting for the mediator/ideology interaction. All estimates shown are random-effects meta-analytic coefficients across the studies where the mechanism measures are available. We acknowledge these mediated associations are problematic in that we cannot be certain the mediators are entirely driven by naturalization due to the cross-sectional nature of our data. They may also be driven by how the mediator generates selection into naturalization. These mediated associations also do not adjust for alternative mediators (multiple mediator bias), only the mediator we test for the purposes of exploring a possible mechanism. In our view, this is a descriptive exercise that allows us to understand the degree to which other variables may explain variation in the association between naturalization and sorting, allowing us to say something about how a variable may influence the naturalization-sorting link through selection and possible mediation. 95% CIs displayed from bootstrapped SEs. The reason there are $N = 11$ studies for evaluating mobilization-as-mediator instead of $N = 7$ studies in our assessment of mobilization-as-moderator (Figure D5) is because in some surveys (the 2024 CMPS and 1989 LNPS), affirmative answers to mobilization exposure questions are only possible among naturalized immigrants. Note: We don't mean to imply causality when we report on the "Average Causal Mediated Effect" (ACME). We read these quantities as descriptive but still use the established term-of-art by Tingley et al. (2014).

F.13 What about social sorting?

Methodological Details and Analysis

We evaluate if naturalization is associated with *social sorting* in addition to *partisan-ideological sorting* (Mason, 2018; Mason and Wronski, 2018). To do this, we generate a measure of how socio-demographically aligned each respondent across our surveys is with each of the two parties. If the socio-demographic groups that individuals belong to are associated with stronger sorting into the two political parties, then the demographics of those specific individuals should be highly predictive of partisan identity and are thus conceivably more socially sorted. Therefore, following the example of Brader et al. (2014) and Konicki (2025), we estimate the relationship between partisan identity and all demographic variables (while explicitly excluding citizenship status, ideology, and other non-socio-demographic covariates such as political knowledge, political participation, experiences with discrimination, etc.) in our original models for each survey (see Table F13 for information on which demographic variables we used for each survey). Then, we acquire the fitted values for partisanship for each individual surveyed in each survey dataset. We take the absolute value of the difference between the true partisanship values and the fitted values, otherwise known as the mean absolute error. We rescale this value between 0-1 and reverse-code it such that higher values for each survey respondent means less error in how demographics predict partisan identity and therefore implying stronger social sorting. For the purposes of our analysis, we call this variable *partisan-social alignment*. This variable has several useful properties. First, it is agnostic to the set of covariates that are included in each predictive model for each survey. Second, it allows certain demographic characteristics to vary in their influence across each survey. For instance, being Cuban could be more predictive of Republican identity in some time periods versus others.

We then re-run our base models for each survey but also include an interaction term between *citizenship* and our measure of *partisan-social alignment*:

$$(16) \quad \text{Partisanship}_i = \alpha + \beta_1(\text{Ideology}_i \times \text{Citizen}_i) + \beta_2(\text{Alignment}_i \times \text{Citizen}_i) \\ + \beta_3\text{Ideology}_i + \beta_4\text{Citizen}_i + \beta_5\text{Alignment}_i + \sum_{k=1}^k \beta_{5+k}X_i^k + \varepsilon_i$$

Consistent with our theory and hypotheses, we may expect the association between partisan-social alignment and partisan identity to be stronger for naturalized immigrants than unnaturalized immigrants (thus, β_2 of Equation (16) would be positive). However, given newer research has identified a limited role of social sorting in influencing partisan identity, β_2 may be statistically insignificant (Konicki, 2025).

Figure F18 displays the correlation between ideology and partisanship (Panel A) in addition to social alignment and partisanship (Panel B) across naturalization status. Consistent with our main results, Figure F18, Panel A shows that the relationship between ideology and partisanship is stronger for naturalized citizens than non-citizens. Also consistent with our theory and hypotheses, Figure F18, Panel B shows that the standardized correlation between social alignment and partisanship is stronger for naturalized citizens (0.23) than non-citizens (0.14). Coefficient difference tests show that these coefficients are marginally statistically distinguishable from each other ($p < 0.10$). This result implies that, in addition to being associated with ideological sorting, naturalization may also be associated with social sorting into the two political parties. However, it is important to note, consistent with prior research suggesting ideological sorting is a stronger force in shaping partisanship than social sorting, that the correlation between partisanship and ideology is marginally statistically stronger than the correlation between partisanship and social alignment ($p < 0.10$) for naturalized immigrants. Regardless, naturalization appears to not only be associated with ideological sorting, but also social sorting.

Evaluating Relationship Between Naturalization, Ideological Sorting, and Social Sorting

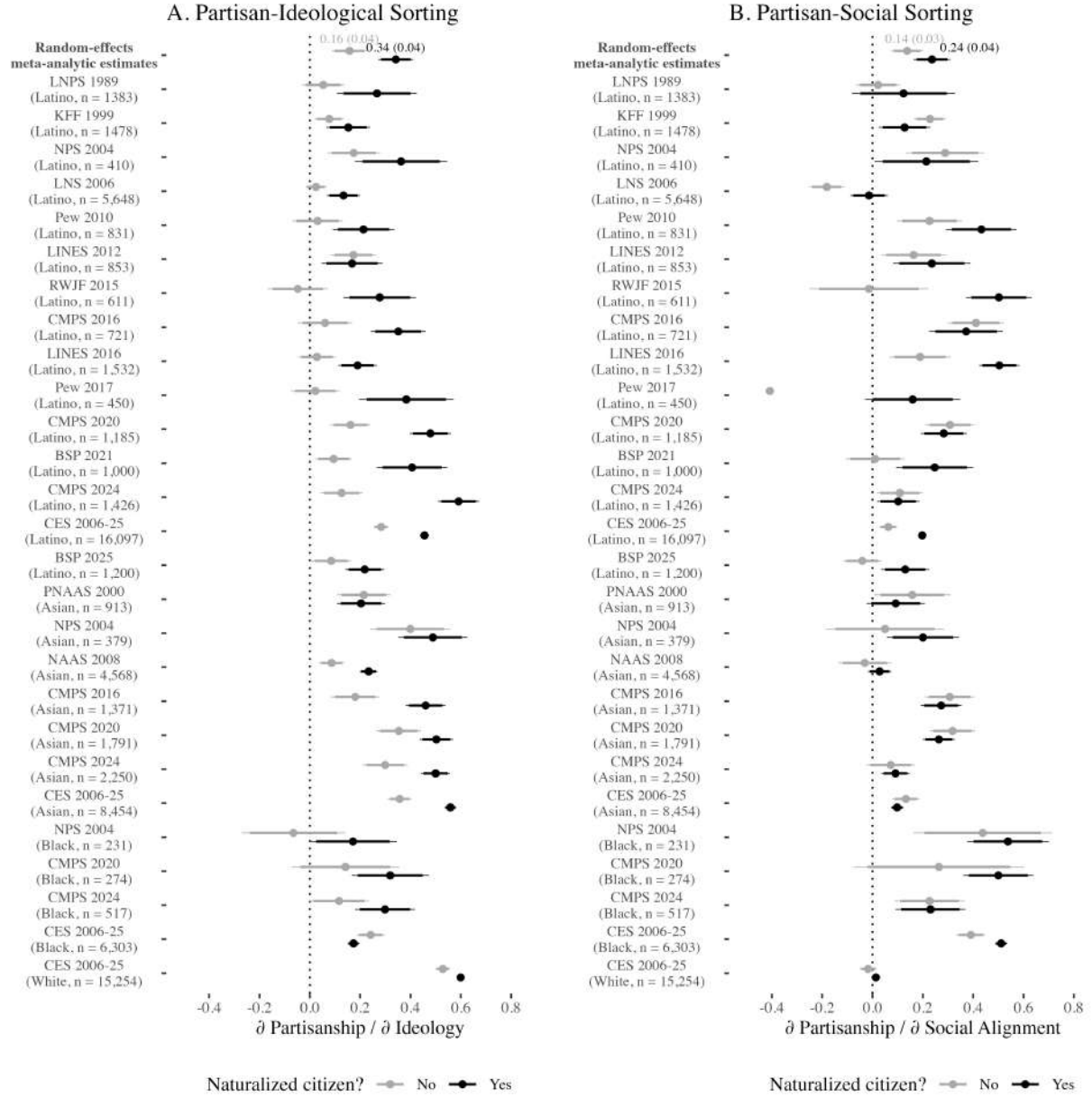


Figure F18: Naturalization is also associated with higher partisan-social sorting but is more strongly associated with partisan-ideological sorting. Panel A characterizes the meta-analytic association between ideology and partisanship (y-axis) across naturalization status (denoted by color). Panel B characterizes the meta-analytic association between social alignment and partisanship (y-axis) across naturalization status (denoted by color). The difference between the random-effects meta-analytic coefficients for non-citizens and naturalized immigrants is statistically significant for both partisan-ideological and partisan-social sorting ($p < 0.05$). 95% CIs displayed from HC2 robust SEs.

Demographic Covariates Used to Generate Partisan-Social Alignment Measure

Table F13: Demographic Variables Used to Generate Partisan-Social Alignment Measure

Survey	Demographics
LNPS 1989 (Latino)	Yrs. in US, Age, Gender, Marital, Income, College, Unemployed, Homeowner, Nat. Origin
KFF 1999 (Latino)	Yrs. in US, Age, Gender, Religion, Non-Eng. Interv., Nat. Origin, Marital, High Income, College, Unemployed
NPS 2004 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Yrs. in US, Age, Gender, Religion, Nat. Origin, Marital, Income, College, Unemployed, Homeowner
LNS 2006 (Latino)	Yrs. in US, Gender, Non-Eng. Interv., Religion, Marital, Nat. Origin, Income, College, Unemployed, Homeowner
NAAS 2008 (Asian)	Gender, Marital, Nat. Origin, Homeowner, College, Unemployed, Income
Pew 2010 (Latino)	Yrs. in US, Gender, Non-Eng. Interv., Religion, Nat. Origin, Income, College, Unemployed, Homeowner
LINES 2012 (Latino)	Age, Gender, Religion, Nat. Origin, Marital, Income, College, Unemployed, Homeowner
RWJF 2015 (Latino)	Age, Gender, Religion, Nat. Origin, Non-Eng. Interv., Income, College
PNAAS 2000 (Asian)	Yrs. in US, Nat. Origin, Marital, Income, Unemployed, Homeowner
CMPS 2016 (Latino, Asian)	Yrs. in US, Non-Eng. Interv., Age, Gender, Nat. Origin, Marital, Income, College, Unemployed, Homeowner
LINES 2016 (Latino)	Yrs. in US, Non-Eng. Interv., Age, Gender, Nat. Origin, Marital, Income, College, Unemployed, Homeowner
Pew 2017 (Latino)	Age, Gender, Religion, Marital, Income, College, Unemployed
CMPS 2020 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Yrs. in US, Non-Eng. Interv., Age, Gender, Nat. Origin, Religion, Marital, Income, College, Unemployed, Homeowner
BSP 2021 (Latino)	Non-Eng. Interv., Age, Gender, Marital, Nat. Origin, Income, College, Unemployed
CMPS 2024 (Latino, Asian, Black)	Age, Gender, Nat. Origin, College, Income, Yrs. in US, Non-Eng. Interv.
CES 2006–25 (Latino, Asian, Black, White)	Age, Religion, Unemployed, College, Income, Homeowner, Yrs. in US, Union, Marital, Parent, Military
BSP 2025 (Latino)	Age, Non-Eng. Interv., Yrs. in US, Gender, Nat. Origin, Income, College

F.14 Disaggregating Non-Citizens by Legal Status

F.14.1 Cross-Sectional Data

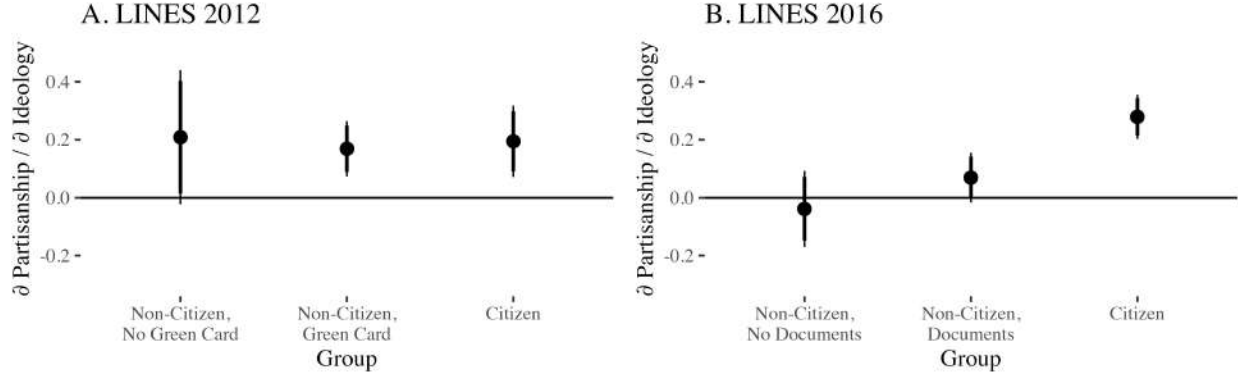


Figure F19: Documentation alone is not associated with higher partisan-ideological sorting, only citizenship status. Panels A-B characterize fully-specified covariate-adjusted correlations between partisanship and ideology (y-axis) for non-citizens with no green card (or documentation), non-citizens with a green card (or documentation), and citizens (x-axis). 95% CIs displayed from HC2 robust SEs.

F.14.2 Panel Data

Table F14: Non-citizens do not sort over time regardless of legal status (LINES 2012 Panel)

	Obama-Romney FT (T2)			Ideology (T2)					
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
Ideology (T1)	0.04 (0.15)	-0.02 (0.04)	-0.00 (0.08)	0.17 (0.24)	0.39*** (0.07)	0.36*** (0.09)	0.17 (0.21)	0.38*** (0.07)	0.39*** (0.09)
Obama-Romney FT (T1)	0.08 (0.24)	0.52*** (0.06)	0.79*** (0.08)	-0.21 (0.28)	0.04 (0.08)	0.17* (0.08)			
Partisanship (T1)							-0.33 (0.19)	0.09 (0.06)	0.10† (0.05)
Controls?	N	N	N	N	N	N	N	N	N
Survey	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12	LINES '12
Sample	NC, NGC	NC, GC	Citizen	NC, NGC	NC, GC	Citizen	NC, NGC	NC, GC	Citizen
R ²	0.02	0.30	0.54	0.07	0.19	0.26	0.18	0.20	0.25
Num. obs.	26	223	171	26	223	171	26	223	171

*** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; † $p < 0.1$

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$. NC = Non-citizen, NGC = Non-Green Card, GC = Green Card. All respondents here are ethnically Latino. Time 1 (T1) corresponds to Wave 1 of the LINES 2012 panel (Oct. 10-Nov. 5, 2012) while Time 2 (T2) corresponds to Wave 2 (Nov. 7-Dec. 20, 2012) respondents. Unlike Table E6, we do not use control covariates in these models due to the small sample size for the non-citizen, non-green card LINES subsample ($N = 26$). All covariates scaled between 0-1. HC2 robust standard errors in parentheses.

Table F15: Non-citizens do not sort over time regardless of legal status (LINES 2016 Panel)

	Partisanship (T2)			Ideology (T2)		
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
Ideology (T1)	-0.11 (0.24)	0.06 (0.07)	0.23*** (0.05)	0.35* (0.17)	0.56*** (0.07)	0.55*** (0.05)
Partisanship (T1)	0.57** (0.19)	0.49*** (0.09)	0.69*** (0.04)	0.07 (0.13)	0.03 (0.07)	0.09** (0.03)
Controls?	N	N	N	N	N	N
Survey	LINES '16	LINES '16	LINES '16	LINES '16	LINES '16	LINES '16
Sample	NC, ND	NC, D	Citizen	NC, ND	NC, D	Citizen
R ²	0.24	0.23	0.60	0.12	0.27	0.36
Num. obs.	61	272	470	61	272	470

*** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$. ND = Non-citizen, ND = Non-Documented, D = Documented. All respondents here are ethnically Latino. ND respondents are those that report they do not have a green card nor valid papers to live or work in the United States. To maximize sample size, Time 1 (T1) corresponds to Wave 1 of the LINES 2016 panel (Summer 2016) while Time 2 (T2) corresponds to Wave 2 (Nov. 2016-Jan. 2017) respondents in addition to Wave 3 (Jul-Sep. 2017) respondents who were interviewed in Wave 1 but did not respond to Wave 2. Unlike Table E7, These models do not use control covariates due to the small sample size for non-documented non-citizens (N = 61). All covariates scaled between 0-1. HC2 robust standard errors in parentheses.

F.15 Panel Evidence By Race

Table F16: Association between ideology and partisanship over time across citizenship and race (GSS Panel)

	Partisanship (Time 2)				Ideology (Time 2)			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)
Ideology (Time 1)	0.06 (0.17)	0.38 (0.34)	0.08 (0.24)	0.09 (0.11)	0.38 [†] (0.23)	0.77 [†] (0.39)	1.06*** (0.31)	0.70** (0.26)
Partisanship (Time 1)	0.62*** (0.16)	0.73*** (0.11)	0.77*** (0.09)	0.85*** (0.07)	0.00 (0.12)	0.40*** (0.11)	0.18 [†] (0.10)	0.47*** (0.11)
Controls?	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
Survey	GSS	GSS	GSS	GSS	GSS	GSS	GSS	GSS
Citizen?	Non-Citizen	Non-Citizen	Citizen	Citizen	Non-Citizen	Non-Citizen	Citizen	Citizen
Race?	Non-White	White	Non-White	White	Non-White	White	Non-White	White
R ²	0.70	0.86	0.77	0.95	0.77	0.79	0.75	0.81
Num. obs.	196	46	191	85	194	44	188	83

*** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$

Table F17: Sorting over time across non-citizens and citizens by race (CES Panel)

	Partisanship (Time 2)				Ideology (Time 2)			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)
Ideology (Time 1)	0.24* (0.12)	-0.04 (0.08)	0.08 (0.06)	-0.03 (0.09)	0.61*** (0.11)	0.89*** (0.07)	0.60*** (0.07)	0.80*** (0.08)
Partisanship (Time 1)	0.42* (0.17)	0.83*** (0.09)	0.92*** (0.04)	0.90*** (0.09)	0.19* (0.08)	0.13 (0.07)	0.17** (0.05)	0.04 (0.06)
Controls?	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y	Y
Survey	CES	CES	CES	CES	CES	CES	CES	CES
Citizen?	Non-Citizen	Non-Citizen	Citizen	Citizen	Non-Citizen	Non-Citizen	Citizen	Citizen
Race?	Non-White	White	Non-White	White	Non-White	White	Non-White	White
R ²	0.57	0.81	0.86	0.84	0.66	0.92	0.67	0.82
Num. obs.	123	58	604	343	123	58	604	343

*** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$

References

- Ansolabehere, Stephen, Jonathan Rodden, and James Snyder (2008). “The strength of issues: Using multiple measures to gauge preference stability, ideological constraint, and issue voting”. *APSR* 102.2.
- Arel-Bundock, Vincent et al. (2026). “Quantitative political science research is greatly underpowered”. *The Journal of politics* 88.1.
- Brader, Ted, Joshua A Tucker, and Andrew Therriault (2014). “Cross pressure scores: An individual-level measure of cumulative partisan pressures arising from social group memberships”. *Political Behavior* 36.1.
- Cain, Bruce E, D Roderick Kiewiet, and Carole J Uhlaner (1991). “The acquisition of partisanship by Latinos and Asian Americans”. *American Journal of Political Science*.
- Carpini, Michael X Delli and Scott Keeter (1996). *What Americans know about politics and why it matters*. Yale University Press.
- Cinelli, Carlos and Chad Hazlett (2020). “Making sense of sensitivity: Extending omitted variable bias”. *Journal of the Royal Statistical Society: Series B (Statistical Methodology)* 82.1.
- DeSipio, Louis (2011). “Immigrant incorporation in an era of weak civic institutions: Immigrant civic and political participation in the United States”. *American Behavioral Scientist* 55.9.
- Eckstein, Susan (2009). *The immigrant divide: How Cuban Americans changed the US and their homeland*. Routledge.
- Enders, Adam and Judd Thornton (2023). “Race, belief system complexity, and partisan-ideological sorting”. *Politics, Groups, and Identities*.
- Green, Donald P, Bradley Palmquist, and Eric Schickler (2004). *Partisan hearts and minds: Political parties and the social identities of voters*. Yale University Press.
- Hainmueller, Jens, Dominik Hangartner, and Giuseppe Pietrantuono (2015). “Naturalization fosters the long-term political integration of immigrants”. *PNAS* 112.41.
- Hajnal, Zoltan and Taeku Lee (2011). *Why Americans don’t join the party: Race, immigration, and the failure (of political parties) to engage the electorate*. Princeton University Press.
- Jefferson, Hakeem (2024). “The curious case of Black “conservatives”: Assessing the validity of the liberal-conservative scale among Black Americans”. *Public Opinion Quarterly* 88.3.
- Jennings, M Kent, Laura Stoker, and Jake Bowers (2009). “Politics across generations: Family transmission reexamined”. *The Journal of Politics* 71.3.
- Kalmoe, Nathan (2020). “Uses and abuses of ideology in political psychology”. *Political Psychology* 41.4.
- Konicki, John (2025). “The Rise of Affective Polarization: Is It What We Think, or Who We Are?”
- Levendusky, Matthew (2009). *The partisan sort: How liberals became Democrats and conservatives became Republicans*. University of Chicago Press.
- Mason, Lilliana (2018). *Uncivil agreement: How politics became our identity*. University of Chicago Press.
- Mason, Lilliana and Julie Wronski (2018). “One tribe to bind them all: How our social group attachments strengthen partisanship”. *Political Psychology* 39.

- Pantoja, Adrian and Gary Segura (2003). "Fear and loathing in California: Contextual threat and political sophistication among Latino voters". *Political Behavior* 25.
- Philpot, Tasha S (2017). *Conservative but not Republican*. Cambridge University Press.
- Raychaudhuri, Tanika (2020). "The social roots of Asian American partisan attitudes". *Asian Pacific American Politics*. Routledge.
- Roman, Marcel F (2023). "Living in the shadow of deportation: How immigration enforcement forestalls political assimilation". *Political Research Quarterly* 76.3.
- Smith, Candis (2014). *Black mosaic: The politics of Black pan-ethnic diversity*. NYU Press.
- Telles, Edward E and Vilma Ortiz (2009). *Generations of exclusion: Mexican Americans, assimilation, and race*. Russell Sage Foundation New York.
- Tingley, Dustin et al. (2014). "Mediation: R package for causal mediation analysis". *Journal of statistical software* 59.
- White, Ismail K and Chryl N Laird (2020). "Steadfast democrats: How social forces shape Black political behavior". *Steadfast Democrats*. Princeton University Press.
- Wong, Janelle S (2000). "The effects of age and political exposure on the development of party identification among Asian American and Latino immigrants in the United States". *Political Behavior* 22.